

Chapter-1

Introduction

1.1 Background

In our everyday lives we come across situations that make us feel things like fear, happiness, disgust, and sadness. These emotions aren't just felting but they have a reason and elicit complicated social emotions such as guilt, shame, pride, humiliation, regret and jealousy (Scheff, 1988). Social emotions play a significant role by prompting us to assess our progress towards life goals (Seo et al., 2004). These emotions act as a sort of guide, encouraging us to measure our behavior against societal expectations that are visible to others. So, it's an ongoing process of reflection and evaluation of our interactions with the people. At the heart of this process is our cognitive evaluation or assessment, known as *appraisal*, plays a central role in determining how we react and behave in different situations.

Because, appraisals are the procedures that anticipate individuals emotional reactions to events based on their cognitions. It contends that events do not cause emotions on their own; rather, individual's appraisal about situations predicts their emotional reactions to situations. Therefore, social emotion guilt, shame, and remorse are interconnected with appraisal as they arise from individuals evaluating their own actions against internalized moral standards. The guilt emotion typically stems from a realization of having violated personal values and prompting a negative appraisal of one's behavior. Similarly, shame is often tied to a broader sense of self-esteem and involving a negative assessment of one's entire self. The remorse reflects an appraisal focused on the specific consequences of one's actions and leading to a desire for behavioral correction. In this way, Appraisal redirects people's behavior by determining whether they are likely to experience affirmative or destructive emotions in response to situation.

By taking the example of a *Sylvia, a 25-year-old event planner, faced a dramatic shift in her professional standing after a critical mistake. Initially considered excellent, however she plummeted to the losers' list due to an error that cost her agency. This swift change severely impacted her confidence, leading to weeks of struggling and missed work. Feeling overwhelmed by fear, guilt, shame, and*

depressed, Sylvia eventually leave her job and the experience went beyond the label of loser (Brown, 2007).

Therefore, with the above example it highlights that both negative and positive emotions are the part of individual life and bind with their respected rules and regulations. If the person goes to do any destruction of their societal norms and standards, it elicits negative social emotions like guilt, shame, embarrassment, remorse, disappointment and regret.

Previous studies highlighted that social emotions motivate individuals to work hard and behave in moral and socially appropriate ways (Fisher & Tangney, 1995). However, lack of knowledge and miss managing of these social emotions in day to day life threaten the person's well-being and put the individual into the different physiological (fast heart beat, sleep issues, restless, muscles trembling, feeling cold & warm, speech tempo changes etc.) and behavioral problems. Also, the high reflections of appraisal about the negative occasions lead adverse self-conscious emotions that push individual into depression, stress, anxiety, aggression, conflict, frustration and violence, as highlighted by the research of Brown (2007) and Tracy et al., (2013).

1.2 Social Emotions

Generally, emotions have been understood and researched on the grounds of individual level and focus on physiological and neurological processes. However, in the past two decades, there has been a growing academic recognition that emotions are having social component, i.e., they tend to be aroused by other people, exhibited towards the other people, and controlled to serve the society or conform to social standards (Fischer & Mansted, 2010; Parkinson, 1996; Van Kleef, 2009). Despite this growing recognition, however, the integration of the social dimension as a vital component in emotion research is still in its beginning stage (Fischer & Van Kleef, 2010). Presently, the debate on social emotions has lasted more than three decades and appears to be a never ending process due to its complexity and vastness (Scherer, 2005). Researchers discovered that social emotions are feelings elicited by imagined, real-life events, or experienced interactions with people (Leary, 2000; 2004) and it's widely acknowledged that the most common cause of emotion is some kind of social event (Averill, 2012; Kemper, 1978; Oatley & Johnson-Laird,

1987; Parkison, 1996; Salovey, 2003; Shaver et al., 1992) that emotions are frequently interconnected to other people (Fridlund, 1991; Rime et al., 1998; Rime et al., 1991)

Reveals a milestone of emotion expansion, prior psychologists and philosophers claimed that the emotions are universally- triggered by appropriate situational settings and followed by recognizable, emotion-specific patterns of physical changes and feeling states (Gardiner et al., 1937; 1980). This pattern of thinking magnets new insight and *Charles Darwin* boost it further by publishing his third vital work in evolutionary theory of emotions i.e.; "*The Expression of the Emotions in Man and Animals*" (Darwin, 1872; Pace-Schott et al., 2019). He came as a supporter of *universalism* and said that emotions oblige strong adaption functions and having fundamental physiological and expressive reaction patterns which directs human behavior. Therefore, universalism asserts that emotion is a fundamental human operating mechanism that is mostly constant throughout races and cultures, just as perception, cognition, and learning. Therefore, the key tenet of *Darwinism* that the biologically based emotion mechanism is phylogenetic-ally continuous and clearly suggests that the emotion process is cross-culturally universal (Chung & Robins, 2015; Cordaro et al., 2018; Hess & Thibault, 2009). But over the period of time the opponent of universality came into existence in the form of *differential-ism* concept. There assumption is totally based on psychobiological functionalism and phenomenal evidence that emotions are recognized by diverse linguistic labels with respect to biological and psychological dimensions. In this way, due date the researchers nearly identified more than 61 emotions throughout the world across cultures and categories them in the form of basic and social emotions. Out of which six (6) are basic and rest are considered as social emotions, the categorization of shame, guilt and remorse emotion falls under the social emotions (Gilbert, 2011; Lewis, 1992; Tracy & Robins, 2004). By the expedition of social emotions, currently psychologists and anthropologists establish the new categorization of *social emotions* such as self-conscious and moral emotions. The self-conscious emotions serve important moral functions because they are evoked by self-reflection and self-evaluation. The emergence of self-consciousness occurs far later in development than the formation of the fundamental emotions. They are having cognitively complicated, (Baumeister et al., 1994; Chung & Robins, 2015; Tracy & Robins,

2007) and having a primary assessment (for example, "is the event important to me?") and a secondary appraisal (for example, "how does this event make me feel about who I am?"). Therefore, emotions related to one's own self-awareness play an essential role in the accomplishment of objectives with a social focus (Tangney & Dearing, 2002; Stipek, 1998). On the other hand, "moral emotions" refer to those feeling that are seen to be associated with morally responsible occurrences or function as a catalyst for an agent to do morally significant behaviors (or inactions) (Kroll & Egan, 2004). Understanding people's behavioral adherence (obedience) to their moral norms depends heavily on their moral feelings.

According to Haidt (2003) moral emotions are those "that are linked to the interests or welfare either of society as a whole or at least of persons other than the judge or agent" (Kroll & Egan, 2004). Moral emotions give us the drive and energy to act morally and refrain from performing immorally (Tangney et al., 2007). Therefore, based on this definition, it is evident that moral emotions are secondary emotions since they are aroused by social environment and are closely tied to an individual's self. People feel hurt and heartbroken when their own standards and values are violated. Also, moral feelings wouldn't develop until the age of 15 to 24 months, according to emotion researchers (Lewis, 1995; 1992; Lewis et al., 1992; Lewis et al., 1989).

After self-definition emerges, the moral emotions arise and motivate us to act ethically or obey rules, and protect us from acting immorally (Kroll & Egan, 2004). In this sense, guilt, humiliation, regret, embarrassment, and remorse are the emotions that are most often mentioned as moral emotions. This category of feelings is also known as "*emotions of self-consciousness*" (Tangney et al., 1992) or "*emotions of self-assessment*" (Kroll & Egan, 2004; Taylor, 1996). Because it's impossible to feel guilty, ashamed, regret or remorse without first engaging in some level of introspection about one's own part in the unfolding of significant events, self-reflection is a precondition for experiencing these negative feelings. Therefore, the conscience of one's judgment over the conduct of the agent might trigger a range of emotions, including pride, humiliation, embarrassment, and even guilt (Haidt, 2003).

Therefore, studies revealed that numerous undesirable social situations are having the effect on person life (Markus & Kitayama, 2010), and evoked adverse

social emotions and disturbs the physical, social, emotional psychological life of individual's.

1.3 Characteristics of Social Emotions

The following are some characteristics of social emotions that set them apart from basic emotions (Tracy & Robins, 2004a).

1.3.1 Require Self-awareness and Self-representations

Social emotions are distinct from fundamental emotions because the basic emotions such as fear, sadness, and happiness have a biological tendency. On the other hand, social emotions comprehend heightened self-awareness, self-representations, learnt from their environment and entail self-evaluation's (Buss, 2001; Lewis et al., 1989; Tangney & Dearing, 2002). Meanwhile from William James (1890), theorists have defined self as a combination of a persistent sense of self-awareness (the "I" self) and the ability to construct sophisticated self-representations (the "me" self, or the mental constructs that make up one's identity). These self-process work together to enable self-evaluations and subsequently self-conscious emotions. It's essential to note that when we use the term "self-representations," we don't just mean the cognitive components of the individual self; we also include relational, social, and collective self-representations. We are social beings, thus our self-representations reflect how we see ourselves in relation to our immediate social circles, such as love partners, social groupings, and larger cultural groups (e.g., as a woman, as an Indian etc.).

1.3.2 Emerge in Later Childhood

The development of social emotions emerges after basic emotions (Izard, 1971). Most fundamental emotions originate within the first 9 months of life (Campos et al., 1983). Therefore, the occurrences of social or self-conscious emotions are not emerging until the age of 18-24 months (Lewis, 2000). In this way, the extreme sophisticated self-conscious emotions are arise later, possibly by the end of the child's two and half year (Izard et al., 1999, Lewis et al., 1992; Stipek, 1995; Thompson & Lagattuta, 2006).

1.3.3 Evolved Complex Social Goals

Emotions are thought to have evolved naturally through selection to help individuals achieve their reproductive and survival goals (collectively referred to as "survival goals"). A basic emotion could enhance survival. For instance, Fear may cause someone to leave a danger, boosting their chances of survival. As opposed to this, we think that social emotions largely evolved to support the achievement of specifically social goals, such as the preservation or promotion of status or the avoidance of group or social rejection (Keltner & Buswell, 1997; Tracy & Robins, 2004b). Further, humans developed the ability to move through a social system with various overlapping and occasionally non-transitive social hierarchies (e.g., the highest status hunters were not always the highest status warriors). Therefore, in the course of our evolutionary history, our ability to solve a variety of challenging social issues such as "dyadic, triadic, or group-level's cooperation," "smooth group functioning," "cheating," "intragroup (and, particularly, intersexual) competition," and "intergroup competition" has been vital to our ability to survive (Sedikides & Skowronski, 1997). Due to these interactions, a unique set of emotions tailored for promoting the achievement of social goals. Thus, the social emotions are thought to work as a group to encourage actions that strengthen social hierarchies and validate status roles.

1.3.4 Recognized Facial Expressions

The recognition of distinct facial expressions corresponding to each of the six fundamental emotions is widely acknowledged (Ekman, 2003). However, the identification of facial expressions specific to social emotions is still in its early phases. Presently, they have identified separate expressions for embarrassment, guilt, remorse, pride, and shame that comprise body posture or head movement mixed with facial expression (Izard, 1971; Keltner, 1995; Tracy & Robins, 2004b). According the Tracy and Robins (2007) , a research conducted among isolated tribal communities in *Burkina Faso (a country in West Africa)* the results shows that the expressions of pride, shame or guilt in all these communities are generally understood (Tracy & Robins, 2006). However, researchers emphasize several factors contributing to the distinct facial expressions observed in social emotions are;

1.3.4.1 Conveying Message. The postural or physical cues connected to social emotion such as embarrassment, guilt, pride, and shame feel better and reveal detailed information being provided by these emotions. The simple message “Run” can be conveyed with a rapid face expression to the individuals, whereas the more complicated message “*I just achieved something that makes me earn high rank*” may be better expressed with a complex bodily gesture.

1.3.4.2 Language. Social emotions are expressed through language more frequently than through nonverbal expressions. Both moral and self-conscious emotions tend to convey messages that are often less urgent, potentially allowing for more deliberate processing and the expression through verbal language. In contrast, facial expressions provide the advantage of being automatic and immediate. However, social emotions typically convey messages that are less urgent compared to basic survival emotions. For example, expressing guilt over a social transgression is important, but its significance tends to extend over a longer time period compared to conveying fear in the presence of a predator. This is because feelings of guilt over a social transgression tend to be more enduring emotions.

1.3.4.3 Controlled. Social emotions are controlled as they might occasionally be expressed in an unhelpful way. Because many of the facial muscle contractions involved in facial emotions are involuntary, they are more difficult to control than body movements and posture (Eibl-Eisenfeldt, 1989). The automatic display of our fundamental emotions was certainly more adaptable in our evolutionary history, despite that somehow our social emotions control the expression in comparison to basic emotions. *For instance*, overtly displaying pride is not appropriate in many cultures and doing so may make a person seem unlikable that is the reason the person tries to control them (Eid & Diener, 2001; Mosquera et al., 2000; Paulhus, 1998; Zammuner, 1996).

1.3.5 Having Cognitive Complexity

Social emotions are more cognitively sophisticated than fundamental emotions (Izard et al., 1999; Lewis, 2000). Because people in basic emotions need to perceive an incident as endangering their survival goals in order to feel dread (Lazarus, 1991) that requires very little cognitive ability (Tracy & Robins, 2007). However, in order to feel social emotion like shame, regret, guilt, embarrassment and remorse the

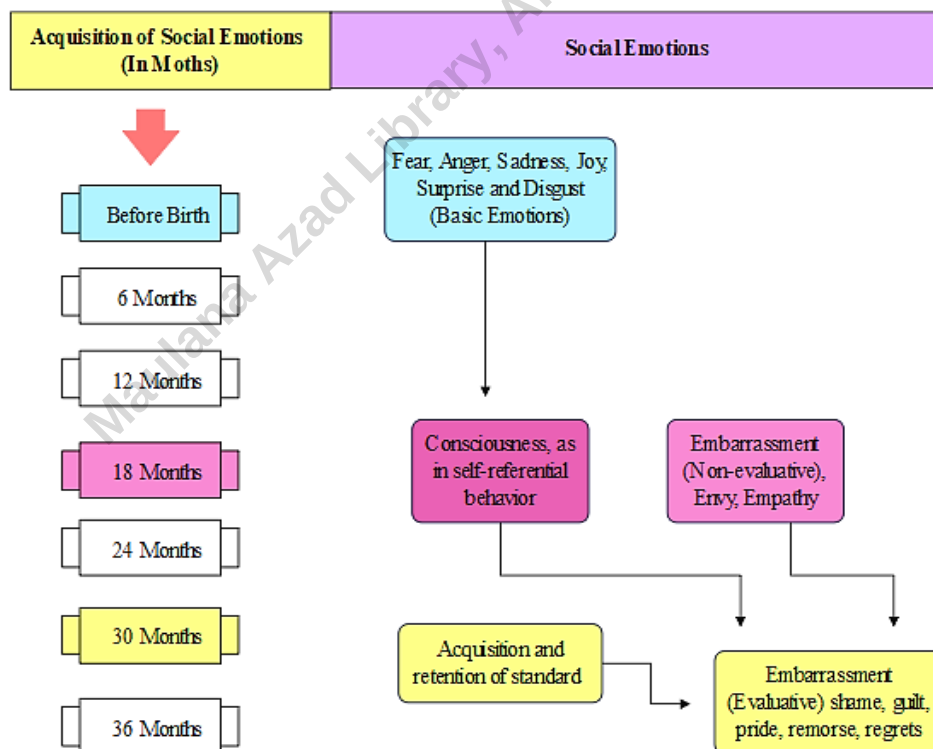
person needs to be able to construct reliable self-representations and actively reflect their behavior (i.e., direct attention focus toward those representations). With the help of these two abilities, a person is able to engage in a variety of intricate self-evaluative processes that cause social emotions. Basic emotions can include these intricate processes, but unlike social emotions arise with much simpler appraisals (LeDoux, 1996).

1.4 Development Model of Guilt, Shame and Remorse

Researchers have noted that social emotions, such as shame, guilt, envy, humiliation, jealousy, and remorse, are the result of complex cognitive operations; therefore, it is not surprising that they emerge later in childhood than basic emotions (Izard, 2007) and not exist at birth (Lagattuta & Thompson, 2007; Lewis, 1995; 2000; Tangney & Dearing, 2002). As a result, before experiencing the emotions of guilt, remorse, shame, and pride, the individuals have sufficient control over three cognitive functions. (See Fig; 1.1)

Figure 1.1

Development Model of Guilt, Shame and Remorse Emotion



First, the development of self-awareness and consistent self-representations, typically occurring between 18 and 24 months, is considered essential for the emergence of social emotions. In an experimental study by Lewis et al. (1989), the mirror-rouge test 3 was utilized to differentiate infants and toddlers aged 9 to 24 months who demonstrated self-recognition from those who did not. Subsequently, both groups were exposed to various situations intended to evoke either a basic emotion (fear) or a self-conscious emotion (shame or embarrassment). The findings indicated that while both groups exhibited similar levels of anxiety, the self-aware children more frequently displayed signs of shame compared to their non-self-aware counterparts. Similar results regarding guilt were reported by Kochanska et al. (2002).

In addition, Lewis (1992; 2000) proposed a theory of emotional development in which emotions that are present at birth and don't require much thought are referred to as "primary" or "basic" emotions. The model suggests that the concept of "me" or self-awareness appears between the ages of 15 and 18 months. Around this time, self-conscious emotions like embarrassment, envy, and empathy start to manifest. So, these emotions do not necessitate self-evaluation. Further, these feelings are not based on self-evaluation, but rather on self-awareness. Lewis (2007) referred to these feelings as self-conscious exposed feelings. Therefore, this model drives to say that children begin to learn about the norms, guidelines, and objectives by which they can judge their own behavior about the time they turn three. Additionally, they start assigning themselves attributes and making judgments about their success or failure. The development of self-conscious evaluative emotions like pride, shame, and guilt is facilitated by these complex cognitive abilities (Lewis, 2007; Sedighimornani, 2018).

Second, it's crucial for children to understand that there are specific guidelines and expectations for what constitutes socially acceptable behavior. According to research, toddlers as early as 21 months already exhibit some understanding of what is fair or unfair in a social context (Sloane et al., 2012), and by the time they reach preschool age, the majority of kids already grasp what is right and wrong (Eisenberg et al., 2006). This is in line with research showing that precursors and early manifestations of guilt, shame, and pride are typically seen by the age of 3 (Barrett et al., 1993; Kochanska et al., 1994; 2002; Tracy et al., 2005). Thus, the fundamental cognitive prerequisites for children to experience self-conscious emotions (e.g., self-awareness and stable self-representations) are already present in most children at a

fairly young age (Muris & Meesters, 2014). Taking the research example of Cole et al. (1992) conducted an experiment of 45 children's with 2-year of age. Two experiment situations were created and short movies were shown as the treatment purpose. The movies were all about misfortunes such as a doll breaking and juice spilling. The researchers discovered that these young infants showed obvious signals of discomfort in response to the mishaps, and nearly half of them were also consistently attempting to correct their "faults," which may be interpreted as an early evidence of guilt.

However, the Griffin (1995) argued that kids do not first experience shame and pride in their adult forms until they are seven to eight years old. *For instance*, when a group of five-year-old kids were asked to describe how a child felt after breaking a social norm and receiving negative judgments in front of his peers, the majority of the kids said that the youngster felt sad, upset, or bad, but not ashamed or embarrassed. Further, Griffin (1995) asserts that children do not fully develop these skills until the age of eight. Similar to this, Leary (2007) claimed that self-conscious emotions are fundamentally social emotions and are triggered when a person is able to visualize themselves in the thoughts of others and is aware that others have ideas about them or judge and evaluate them.

Last remark that shame is exhibited by three-year-old children but that sophisticated reasoning about shame and a full grasp of this complicated feeling do not occur until the age of seven or eight is perhaps fair. *For instance*, Olthof et al. (2004) discovered that children aged seven and older gave a protagonist who erred and as a result resulted in a negative identity and self-evaluation a greater degree of shame and guilt. *Examples* include lying about taking necessary medication and becoming ill. According to this study, children as seven can understand the complex and subtle distinctions between guilt and shame that are typically only apparent in adults (Lagattuta & Thompson, 2007).

Third, Children's behavior is eventually internalized as a result of their continued cognitive development, allowing them to form reliable assessments of their own behavior. The study by Ferguson et al. (1991) (which used a scenario method to examine children's ideas of guilt and shame) provides evidence in favor of this claim. When examining these social or self-conscious sentiments, it was shown that younger children tended to focus mostly on how others might react, but older children tended

to rely more on their own standards to form accurate self-evaluations. Therefore, social emotions appear to develop significantly over the course of development. *For instance*, two studies that looked at how well 5- to 11-year-olds understood guilt and shame found that by the age of 8, kids had a better knowledge of these two social emotions and were better able to distinguish between them (Berti et al., 2000; Olthof et al., 2000). This shows that throughout middle childhood, these complex emotions begin to manifest in their genuine, “pure” forms. Research using samples of children up to the age of 18 has shown that these self-conscious emotions are honed during adolescence (Leverato & Donati, 1999; Olthof et al., 2004). Gavazzi et al. (2011) carried out an outstanding study in which they meticulously analyzed the tales of children and teenagers between the ages of 9 and 16 in order to explore the mentalization of guilt. The findings revealed that while adolescents more frequently reported feelings of guilt about the effects of their actions on other people (e.g., treating someone poorly or disappointing other people/betraying their trust), children more frequently reported episodes of guilt related to actions that either cause damage or go against rules, moral norms, and conventions. These writers noticed that the change from the relatively straightforward, outside based self-conscious emotions of children to the more complicated, internally based ones as documented in teens is due to advancements in meta-cognitive reflection and abstraction. This is consistent with Lewis (2000) theory that cognitive maturity greatly influences the experience and nature of self-conscious emotions.

1.5 Guilt

Guilt emotion arises when one believes and acknowledges that he have done something wrong or committed an offense. It is an action-focused emotion because it makes people criticize themselves for a specific action (Tangney et al., 2007; Hooge et al., 2008). We feel guilty when we believe that we have done something wrong, either physically or imaginary. It has to do with actions or inactions that have harmed others in actual or perceived ways. The distinction between real and imagined acts is significant from a clinical standpoint. Therefore, a person feels guilty about something they have committed physically and mentally, or merely having thought about it.

Guilty feelings focused on a specific action because that particular activity cause harm to others. In an emotional experience of guilt, the self is not the main thing that

is judged negatively. Instead, the focus is on what has been done or left undone (Lewis, 1971). So, guilt doesn't seem to change a person's core self or identity rather individuals focus relays on his behavior and his self stays the same. A person feels guilty by thinking that "I did something wrong" (Anolli & Pascucci, 2005). Therefore, as an emotional state, the guilt is characterized by a sense of tension, remorse, and regret. It makes people want to do things like apologies, realization, given clearance for his bullshit, and do good things for other people.

In ordinary life people sometimes use shame and guilt interchangeably, because they are triggered by circumstances that are comparable (Tangney, 1992; Tangney et al., 1994). But in light of Lewis (1971) groundbreaking research that there is mounting evidence that shame and guilt are distinct varieties of social or self-conscious emotions. Therefore, researchers revealed both the factors are different and having different physical, psychological and behavior reactions and effects. *For instance*, one might feel guilty without feeling ashamed, i.e.; if the person stole the important thing and spread false news and making allegation to other person. On the other hand, without any sense of guilt, one could experience feelings of shame regarding a physical component of their appearance. For more understanding, taking two separate parental reactions to their child's misdeed is helpful method to distinguish between guilt and shame. Suppose, in a first reaction a parent shouts to a child "What you did was naughty!" probably a child could feel guilty. On the other way, the child might feel ashamed if the parent calls him "you are a misbehaving kid". In this way, researchers revealed that we feel guilty about something we did, but ashamed about how it makes us look (Clark, 2012).

In this way, guilt experience is frequently felt when a behavioral norm is broken and it is obvious to other people that it was broken. As a result, the person has acted in a way that is contrary to accepted standards and values as well as his or her own expectations. In addition, the person believes that because of their behavior, they will suffer rejection and experience loss from others. Therefore, numerous psychological, expressive, physical, verbal and behavior changes are happened. In this way, the body and facial reactions are frequently changed and openly visualize such as downing head, reddening of (cheeks, ears, neck, nose, forehead) are increased the blood flow in the facial skin, sweating upper side nose and upper cheek etc. are the certain indications of guilt that investigators highlighted.

1.6 Functions of Guilt

1.6.1 Social and Interpersonal Function

Guilt is considered one of the most adverse interpersonal and social feelings (Carroll, 1985; Cryder et al., 2012; Tangney, 1999). Because, it arise by broken the rules, values or norms related to the person or social settings and changes the social and interpersonal connections to each other. One may want to make apologies and restore the potentially damaged relationship with other person since they feel guilty about what they did to them (Cryder et al., 2012; Tignor & Colvin, 2019). The feeling of guilt is intrinsically tied to another person's interests and the intention of preserving, healing, or evaluating relationships with others. It has been demonstrated to stimulate practical behaviors in both others and self, which may have a favorable effect on social interaction. *For instance*, guilt promotes behaviors towards people who have particularly been wronged rather than generic conduct to restore one's reputation (Cryder et al., 2012).

1.6.2 Direct Behavior Orientation

Researches demonstrated that after guilt the people behave in particular ways toward others, such as being humble, helpful (Zemack-Rugar & Fitzsimons, 2007), and less prejudice (Amodio et al., 2007). The nature of the relationship with the person who has been mistreated directly affects how intensely guilty someone feels; the closer someone is to the victim, and the more severe their emotions are (Baumeister et al., 1994).

1.6.3 Adaptive and Mal-adaptive Function

Depending on how frequently and appropriately an emotion is experienced; it can either be adaptive or functional and maladaptive or dysfunctional. This is true of all emotions (basic and social), whether they are pleasant or unpleasant. In other words, the function of an emotion cannot be determined from the experience of the emotion itself; rather, it must be determined from the circumstances in which the emotion occurs (Scherer et al., 2013). Being guilty (such as disobedience or wrongdoing) with specific situations triggers adverse feelings and leads to maladaptive behavior's. However, admitting guilt (remorse) after wrongdoing something is the socially acceptable reaction and promotes long-lasting relationships (Cryder et al., 2012).

1.6.4 Regulate Trait Functions

According to Tignor and Colvin (2019), the methodology employed to quantify trait guilt will determine whether it is linked to positively or negatively personality-related qualities (e.g. altruism, agreeableness or neuroticism, depressively). Two types of measures can be used to measure trait guilt: *situated or unsaturated measures*. Situated assessments (e.g., Guilt and Shame Proneness Scale, GASP; Cohen et al., 2011) assess trait guilt by asking people to report their likelihood of experiencing various emotions, including guilt. Unsaturated measures (e.g., Positive and Negative Affect Scales; Waston et al., 1988) assess trait guilt by asking people how frequently they experience each of a set of feelings and emotion phrases over a specified period of time (e.g. over the past week, over the past month). Unsaturated assessments of guilt were shown to be associated with maladaptive social traits (e.g., neuroticism and depression), whereas situated measurements were associated with adaptive personal traits (e.g., altruism, agreeableness; Tignor & Colvin, 2019).

1.7 Shame

Shame emerges when one feels inadequate and accompanied by a sense of dishonor and uneasiness about societal disapproval. It is considered one of the most unpleasant negative emotion in which an individual feels small, helpless, insufficient, inept, inferior, shrinking, and worthless. During the shame experience, the person feels exposed, criticized, or insulted (Tangney et al., 2007; Vikan et al., 2010). According to Gilbert (2002), shame is a multidimensional experience with various components such as emotional, physiological, behavioral, cognitive, and social. People who are ashamed having experience the sensations of self-disgust and worry. Furthermore, they want to conceal, avoid eye contact, engage in submissive conduct, display fury, or seek retaliation are some instances of shame-related behavioral responses. Besides that shame is linked to stress reactions and increases parasympathetic activity, which is tied to the physiological component. Moreover the, "self-conscious or moral" emotions such as shame, humiliation, or embarrassment have a strong influence on the formation of the self. Each of these emotions has a distinct phenomenology, with substantial differences in terms of interpersonal relatedness, adjustment, and a wide range of psychopathology. Hence each of these

emotions arises from moral shortcomings or other flaws and requires a poor self-assessment.

Walbott and Scherer (1995) found that those who lived in more "open" cultures (i.e., cultures with low requirements for distance from power and avoidance of uncertainty, as well as high values for uniqueness) felt shame less frequently. On the other hand, shame was widespread in more "closed" societies. These societies placed a great priority on collectivism, keeping one's distance from power, and avoiding ambiguity. So, researcher's emphasis that shame is a worldwide negative self-evaluation that is associated with feelings of impotence or passivity when it comes to correcting the apparent mistake. The focus of shame emotion engagement is on the entire self. Because of the transgression, the individual believes something negative about themselves, such as "I'm a bad person" (Lewis, 1971). As a result of this negative information experience, the individual feels small and worthless. Typically, the individual feels vulnerable, wishes to disappear and people lower their heads to conceal, pull away, and avoid looking at others during the shame episode (Lewis, 1972). Thus, shame frequently causes a person to feel quite awful about himself.

1.8 Classification of Shame

1.8.1 State Shame

Generally the state shame emotion cause fleeting reactions that may do not only hit the individual life. But, they also elicit adverse thoughts, urge and actions, after a shame period are occur over time and effect the individuals regular functioning's. Further, at the state level, emotions are regularly experienced or associated to numerous similar events having significant effects on life functions and adaptations (Ferguson & Stegge, 1995). Researchers in study designs of shame, respondents are frequently requested to recollect or narrate a personal event of shame and simplify their effects (Tangney, 1992). Because, shame is frequently accompanied by feelings of self-consciousness and filled with both physical and psychological characteristics such as vulnerability, inferiority, powerlessness, and inhibition, as well as a rapid heartbeat, tense muscles, and feeling heated or overheated are frequently visualize (Turner, 2014; Wallbott & Scherer, 1989; Wicker et al., 1983).

1.8.2 Trait Shame

Chronic trait shame refers to a regular or continual feeling of shame. At the trait level, a person's identity is characterized by feelings of worthlessness, inadequacy, and powerlessness (Ferguson & Stegge, 1995). Some shame theorists, such as Tangney and her colleagues, argue that the trait or disposition equivalent to state shame and shame-proneness, which is defined as the propensity to experience shame in response to a variety of bad conditions (Tangney, 1992). Particularly, Tangney (1992) argued that shame-prone persons (as opposed to guilt-prone ones) sense shame more readily in a particular bad event. Harper (2011) indicated that persistent suppression or subjugation may contribute to the development of trait shame. Similarly, Tantom (1998) asserted that regular reminders of one's imperfections and awareness of these faults may contribute to the formation of trait shame. Not unexpectedly, trait shame and shame-proneness are linked to a vast array of psychological illnesses. Typically, trait shame shows larger links with psychiatric disorders such as depression and anxiety than does a person's condition shame (Allan et al., 1994; Rusch et al., 2007).

1.8.3 Internal and External Shame

According to Gilbert (2002) there is a difference between the experiencing shame and being shamed. When a person feels ashamed about his or her own traits, this is considered as internal shame (feeling shame); this occurs when a person examines and judges the self adversely and perceives the self negatively. On the other way, when the individuals experience and focus on the others view and judge them adversely, this is referred to as external shame, and it arises when a person believes that he or she will be rejected or assaulted by others (Gilbert, 1998). In other sense, a person feels ashamed because others have a poor view of him and he seems himself low in the eyes of other. *For example*, someone may not disclose his / her sexual orientation to colleagues or families because he or she is frightened of being judged or treated unfairly. The individual doesn't really feel shame internally; however, external circumstances may cause him or her to feel ashamed (Gilbert, 1998).

Thus, the notion of shame being felt as a result of others' perceptions of oneself is similar to Cooley's (1902) concept of the looking-glass self, which states that individuals evaluate themselves based on how they feel others view them (Scheff,

2000). In this way, it is worth noting that people usually rate themselves not just based on how others see or evaluate them, but also on how they believe others can see or assess them (Hogg & Vaughan, 2008; Shrauger & Schoeneman, 1979).

1.9 Similar Constructs of Shame

People in general have a pretty hard time distinguishing shame from similar ideas and emotions such as humiliation and embarrassment (Tangney & Dearing, 2002). However, research has shown that experiences of shame are distinct from emotions of humiliation and embarrassment. Therefore, to understand and explore the emotions of shame, it is important to distinguish shame from other similar constructs.

1.9.1 Embarrassment and Shame

Crozier (2014) emphasizes shame and embarrassment as nearly identical. They contend that the only distinction between these two feelings is their intensity. Embarrassment is considered a milder version of state shame (Lewis, 1995; 1998). According to Lewis (1998; 2000), there are two sorts of embarrassment. The *first type* is milder than shame. It happens when a person fails to fulfill personal goals that aren't critical to their identity. *For example*, if driving is based on one's personality-failing at it, may elicit feelings of shame. If driving isn't extremely important to the individual failing at it, could be embarrassing instead of shaming. *Second*, people can become ashamed simply because their presence is observed. This is referred to as exposed embarrassment. *For example*, being complimented or applauded in front of a large audience may cause feelings of humiliation. Tangney et al. (1996) discovered that guilt and embarrassment had less in common than embarrassment and shame. People who felt embarrassed thought they were victims of circumstances. They even considered embarrassing situations humorous and funny, rather than unpleasant and intense. Embarrassing circumstances appeared to be more unintentional (& people said they felt awkward).

Keltner and Buswell (1996) asserted that embarrassment is related with convention violations, however shame is associated with personal failure such as; Physical hazards, cognitive deficiencies (such as forgetting a name), a lack of control over body (vomiting), and inadequacies in physical appearance, such as walking about with toilet paper stuck to one's shoe, were exposed to be the most common antecedents of shame emphasized by the studies. Further; Crozier (2014) discovered

that shame and embarrassment are usually distinguished by the following criteria: *intensity* (shame is more intense than embarrassment); *duration* (shame lasts longer); *self* (shame is associated with negative self-evaluation and a flawed self); *breaking social rules* (shame is associated with a breach of fundamental rules); *morality* (shame is associated with morality); *spectator* (need for an audience in embarrassment); and *non-verbal expressions* (laughter in embarrassment).

1.9.2 Humiliation and Shame

Klein (1991) refers that humiliation is the feeling of being mocked, insulted, or insulted by others. Individuals who have been humiliated do not accept responsibility for a terrible incident. They blame others or conditions for their terrible loss of dignity, rather than themselves. They most likely attribute the event's origin to external rather than internal reason and consider ourselves as sufferers of circumstances (Tantam, 1998). Shame is associated with feelings about oneself, whereas humiliation is associated with the belief that one does not deserve to be humiliated and treated in this manner. *For example*, a person who has cheated on his or her spouse may feel shame, but the individual who has been cheated on is more likely to feel humiliation (Klein, 1991). When we consider the above distinctions, it is important to remember that these feelings can exist simultaneously. *For example*, a person who has cheated on his or her spouse may experience both guilt and shame, and probably we frequently hear words like *that were so humiliating* or *I feel so embarrassed* in everyday conversation. As a result, it is essential to consider that the distinction between emotions is readily obscured.

1.10 Determinants of Shame

1.10.1 Verbal and Non- Verbal Manifestations

The most prevalent non-verbal appearances of shame include gaze aversion, down head, slumped shoulders, and a collapsed posture (Keltner & Buswell, 1996; Keltner & Harker, 1998). However, body motions particularly dropping shoulders and a stooped posture appear to be vital signs in detecting shame. When someone is shy or uncomfortable, they may exhibit gaze aversion, downward head motions, and blushing (Crozier, 2014). In contrast to basic emotions, audiences are typically less adept in recognizing non-verbal displays of shame (Keltner & Buswell, 1996). *For instance*, shame can be identified with an accuracy of about 50–60%, whereas

emotions like anger or disgust can be identified with an accuracy of about 80% (Keltner & Harker, 1998). According to the comparative emotions, the level of accuracy can be lower. *For instance*, it is difficult to imagine that people who are ashamed may be distinguished from those who have experienced humiliation. Because, identifying and understanding shame based body language is not yet fully explored and still lies in its infancy stage due to its complexity. However, more researches and in depth studies can be increased its accuracy of identification and make distinguished form other emotions.

1.10.2 Physiological Reactions

When it comes to bodily responses to shame, the indicators include blushing (Crozier, 2014). In fact, these responses are remarkably and linked to physiological arousal responses associated with worry and stress (Gilbert, 1998; 2002). Dickerson et al. (2004) and Gruenewald et al. (2007) proposed that shame causes a number of psychological and physiological responses, including an increase in *cytokine activity* and *cortisol level*. Further, researchers revealed that "events that threaten the social self-evoke activation of the hypothalamic-pituitary-adrenal (HPA) and pro-inflammatory immune systems, resulting in the release of the HPA hormone cortisol and inflammatory cytokines" (Gruenewald et al., 2007). Studies shown the correlation between emotions of shame (and other negative self-evaluative moods) and elevated cortisol levels and pro-inflammatory cytokine activity. *For instance*, In the study of Dickerson et al. (2004) participants who wrote about their personal familiarities to experience self-blame and threats to their social selves showed a higher level of pro-inflammatory cytokine as well as a higher level of shame compared to those who did not experience these negative emotions. Further, Dickerson et al. (2004) finds female participants who were required to deliver a speech or complete a math test in front of a judgmental or evaluative audience (a social evaluative threat) displayed an increase in pro-inflammatory cytokine in comparison to those who completed the tasks in the absence of an evaluative audience. Likewise, the research of Lewis and Ramsay's (2002), research also showed that four-year-old kids who showed signals of guilt and evaluative embarrassment after failing a color-matching test in a lab also had a higher cortisol response.

1.10.3 Behavior Apprehensions

Empirical data suggests that having poor social status may confirm a persistent danger to the social self (or a persistent sensation of shame) leads to the health concerns. Regarding this, Dickerson et al. (2009) discovered that HIV patients who experienced stigma and rejection due to their sexual orientation passed away on average two years earlier than those who did not. However, HIV patients who felt other unfavorable emotions like sadness, anger, or worry over the course of seven years did not see their CD4 T-cell count fall (Gruenewald et al., 2007). Therefore, shame appears to be the negative emotion that is shunned and rejected the people and leads negative health consequences.

1.11 Remorse

Remorse is an emotional distress arising from a sense of guilt for wrongdoing and desire for redemption. It is an unpleasant emotional reaction to moral wrongdoing (Keltner & Buswell, 1996; Spice et al., 2015), and containing emotional distress from past transgressions (such as; failing to perform a particular duty) (Corwin et al., 2012). It has also been guessed that remorse serves as a form of self-punishment (Slovenko, 2006). In other words, remorse brings a feeling of true sense of grief arising from realization that one has committed an error. "I made a mistake that I deeply regret" (Bekar, 2018). Therefore, Remorse consequently results from focusing on a particular action, or non-action that disobeys moral or ethical principles.

According to Zhong et al. (2014), remorse is a distressing emotion that emerges from accepting individual accountability for an act of damage towards another person. With further consideration, the remorseful person may desire that the behavior had never happened anywhere and seek to make apologies to the victim. Further, Tudor (2006) describes remorse as "the recognition of one's responsibility for the pain of another". So, remorse is considered a social emotion triggered by the emotion of guilt for causing another person's misery, combined with an empathic action toward the injured partners (Gracyalny & Mongeau, 2010).

Researchers entitled *self-condemnation* "an offence-specific version of shame," and *remorse* "an offence-specific version of guilt" (Fisher & Exline, 2010). As a result, remorse has been identified as a fundamental component of the guilt emotion. Because shame and guilt have different orientations as previously acknowledge I.e.;

shame is oriented towards the entire self, whereas guilt is other-focused feeling concentrating on individual transgressions (Leith & Baumeister, 1998; Tangney & Dearing, 2002). In this sense, remorse has been regarded as a situational guilt connected with greater repent and accepting responsibility (Fisher & Exline, 2006). According to Fisher & Exline (2010) remorse stimulates reparative activity, which helps in the resolution of guilt and shame. Therefore, remorse occurs after being wounded or doing something questionable and considered as essential component of guilt and cannot exist without it. Guilt has traumatic and terrible feeling and the person is criticism on his action rather than the entire self. So, the concentration of remorse and regret are about the "wrong thing done" (Tangney, 2007).

By the consideration of moral emotions the remorse is one of the most fascinating emotions (Stokken, 2002; Taylor, 1996), because the emotion is influenced by concepts of right and wrong, or good and bad. So, it occurs from "events that are considered to have a moral component" (e.g., a violation) and motivates a person "towards morally motivated actions" (e.g., empathizing with or assisting somebody) (Kroll & Egan, 2004).

Based on these notions, the transgressor's level of remorse fluctuates depending on how much the person experienced as well as how responsible the accused person feels for that misery (Tudor, 2001). *For example*, if an individual criticizes a friend regarding their professional choices and the friend then quits his or her job and experiences financial difficulties as a result, remorse is likely to be restricted. *However*, if the friend is perceived to have overreacted. The offender may feel regret for the insult, but he or she may not bear responsibility for the friend's unemployment.

Indeed, remorse "focuses on the action rather than the actor" (Taylor, 1996). A person's remorse varies according to how much they believe their actions contributed to the misery of others. Furthermore, it is important to distinguish the term conceptually from other comparable conceptions, notably regret (Miller & Nicholson, 1976). Because remorse is regarded both as a cognitive and emotional reaction to one's own wrongdoings, many researchers consider both feelings interchangeably. This is happening for two reasons. *First*, while these feelings are separate but they usually occur together. *Second*, they are frequently used

interchangeably. *For instance*, the online dictionary Encarta defines remorse as "a deeper sense of guilt and shame" (Dictionary, 2010).

1.12 Similar Construct of Remorse

Taylor (1996) distinguishes remorse from regret by arguing that "remorse is felt around a sin or moral wrong, whereas regret is felt about something that is in some manner undesirable but not especially morally so". Remorse, in addition to having a moral component, suggests that the person had some level of influence over (and so responsibility for) the bad situation. When *Nathan Hale* said, "I regret that I am given but one life to sacrifice for my nation," he was expressing an undesirable situation over which he possessed no control. Furthermore, a person may experience regret (but not remorse) for an unpleasant conduct that was seen contextually appropriate. *For example*, if a bullying provoked an individual to use physical aggressiveness in self-defense, that person may come to regret the events that led to the need for violence. However, if the aggressor felt that the acts were essential for self-protection, he or she is unlikely to feel remorse (i.e., the bully, and not the self, is responsible). As per Taylor (1996), emotions of remorse and regret result from differing perceptions of a negative experience. Furthermore, a person who feels remorse (but not regret) will wish to reverse the deed that wounded the other.

Thus, regret and remorse occur concurrently and can be experienced separately Taylor (1996), in a variety of situations i.e.; regret can be felt without remorse and vice versa. *For instance*, women, in particular, frequently experience feelings of guilt as a result of premarital sexual or eating activities (D'Augelli & Cross, 1997; Steenhuis, 2009). In such cases, anxiety and discomfort are more likely to be caused by infractions of behavioral standards (either individual or societal) than by the distress of another person.

1.13 Components of Remorse

Consistent with the view that remorse concentrates primarily on accepting responsibility for damaging another (combined with a sympathetic reaction toward the damaged partner), and research discloses that remorse is composed of many cognitive, affective, and behavioral components of the emotions (Gracyalny & Mongeau, 2010). These include accepting responsibility for one's conduct, caring and concern for the victim, attachment (i.e., a want to maintain the relationship), avoiding

punishment, personal anguish, and a desire to repair or reverse the damage caused by one's actions (Gracyalny & Mongeau, 2010; Taylor, 1996). Recent research on the sense of remorse suggests that these factors reflect the offender's concern for the victim, the relationship, and the self (Gracyalny & Mongeau, 2011), and offenders communicate these worries both orally and nonverbally (Gracyalny & Mongeau, 2010).

1.13.1 Admitting Responsibility

Recognizing and accepting responsibility for one's harmful behavior distinguishes remorse from other social emotions. Apologies are necessary for effective remorse expression because the offender: (a) informs the victim that s/he acknowledges the poor behavior and that they share ethical standards; (b) informs the victim that the pain experienced wasn't the fault of the victim; and (c) suffers the humiliation of admitting his/her flaws (Lazare, 2004). Apologies that are appropriate should notify victims that offenders are no longer a threat to their personal or relational well-being, and may even elicit sympathy or empathy from victims for the remorseful offender (McCullough et al., 1997). Empathic concern, in addition to accepting responsibility for the partner's pain, plays a key role in the sensation and express of other-oriented remorse. Indeed, Gracyalny & Mongeau (2010) discovered that repentant offenders display empathic care both nonverbally (i.e., concerned facial expression) and orally (i.e., telling the victim how bad he/she feels as a result of the victim's suffering).

Offenders are more likely to feel other-oriented remorse when they witness the victim's pain and suffering; consequently, this response should occur when victims express their loss and sadness by crying or appearing sad (i.e., Vangelisti and Crumley's acquiescent (1998) responses). Offenders may be less likely to perceive victims as suffering when they employ conciliatory communication (i.e., communicating their sentiments in a calm and non-threatening manner). Similarly, the victim's threatening message demonstrates dominance rather than weakness. According to recent study, people are more likely to express emotional empathy and tenderness for vulnerable persons than for non-vulnerable people (Lishner et al., 2011). As a result, offenders' experience of other-oriented guilt should be most strongly connected with victims' sad communication.

1.13.2 Relationship Concerns

Repairing or restoring meaningful relationships after a relational transgression is a key function of remorse. In fact, Fisher and Exline (2006) discovered that hurting an important relationship partner causes more remorse than hurting a stranger. The affiliation element of remorse experience includes thoughts and sentiments about the connection, such as feeling dedicated to the harmed person, desiring to grow closer to him/her, and appreciating the significance of the relationship. This component demonstrates the offender's understanding of a significant relationship and his or her desire to preserve or repair it. As a result, abusers frequently demonstrate remorse by engaging in connection behavior's that convey sympathy, caring, and worry for the recipient. Connection can be stated verbally (for example, "I respect you," "You're very important to me") as well as nonverbally through immediacy and affectionate acts (e.g., close proximity, leans eye contact, touch etc.). As a result, offenders try to signal that, although the rule breach, they still care about the upset spouse and are anxious about the relationship.

When victims react to hurt in a productive manner rather of an angry, destructive way, an offender's concern for the connection is more likely to occur. Victims' conciliatory communication (e.g., discussing ways to repair the relationship, telling the offender that s/he is still devoted to him/her) may be most strongly associated with offenders' relational concerns because it reflects the victim's willingness to approach the transgression (and continuing connection) in a positive way. Offenders' connection actions should be significant in repairing relational damage, especially when the bond is valued.

1.13.3 Self-apprehension

A self-focused aspect of remorse is the desire to escape punishment from the victim (or one's social group) or to prevent the loss of valued resources. This desire is included in the self-focused factor of remorse. As a result, whenever confronted by an unhappy victim (or that one threatening to end an important connection), the offender's remorse experience is likely to include a strong anxiety for one's own well-being. The self-centered component of remorse involves a decision to prevent punishment from the sufferer (or one's social circle) and avoid losing valued resources.

1.13.4 Avoid Retribution

One proposed function that remorse helps to diminish retaliation after someone hurt somebody. According to research, anger and the desire to exact revenge are common reactions to perceived purposeful and serious interpersonal harm by that other individuals (Guerrero & Bachman, 2010; McCullough, 2008). Given that many animal species demonstrate submission throughout the reconciliations (DeWaal & Pokorny, 2007; DeWaal & Ren, 1986), it isn't surprising that self-focused remorse promotes low status actions in humans. When seeking relationship repair or avoiding possible future punishment following a rule infraction, humans generally exhibit subservient conduct (e.g., avoiding eye contact, drooping their heads, physically shrinking) (Keltner et al., 1997). Offenders who demonstrate remorse submissively take the blame for the partner's damage and may wish to decrease or avoid future punishment. This method usually works because submissive behavior gets more sympathy (and less punishment) from the aggrieved person and encourages relational repair and reconciliation (Keltner et al., 1997).

According to Gracyalny and Mongeau (2010), low status is transmitted both vocally and nonverbally by avoiding eye contact, slouching, begging, and stating how "dumb" or unworthy of their partner's love and forgiveness sinners are. In conjunction to submissive actions, offenders may experience personal anxiety as a result of the possibility of losing their spouse or experiencing undesirable (personal) repercussions. Personal distress is expressed both vocally (for example, telling the victim how worried he or she is about the future) and nonverbal signals (i.e., looking upset or anxious, and speaking in a low or shaking voice).

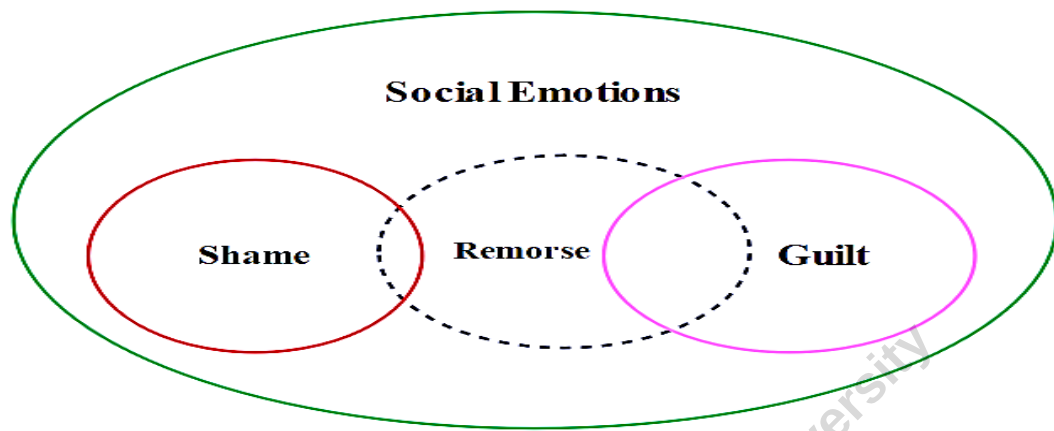
1.14 Differences of Guilt, Shame and Remorse

Both shame and guilt are unique forms of social emotions that are intrinsically related to the individual in the context of their interactions with other people (Tangney & Dearing, 2002). These emotions are defined by sensations of suffering that arise in response to personal transgressions and they can be experienced powerfully enough since the first interpersonal experiences.

Researchers revealed that the key difference between the shame and guilt is that shame is concerned with a bad appraisal of the entire self; whereas guilt is concerned with a negative evaluation of a single activity (I did that incorrectly). This

indicates that when someone is feeling guilty, they are regretting what they did, wishing they had behaved differently, and considering how they may have prevented the harm. Contrarily, shame is frequently described as a sense of inadequacy and unworthiness that makes a person want to flee or vanish (Tangney & Tracy, 2012; Tracy & Robins, 2004a). As a result of these differences, both emotions function differently. *For example*, shame may serve as an innate mechanism of communicating submission, affirming one's lower rank in the social hierarchy, while guilt may serve as a motivator for defensive and avoidance behavior by encouraging the making of apologies and other attempts to make things right (Gilbert, 1997). Also, shame as an emotion is directly connected to the self and researchers frequently believe that shame is more painful and "destructive" than guilt because it involved whole self and comes with a feeling of being worthless and powerless or of "being small." In fact, it makes people more likely to want to hide or get away from the thing that makes them feel ashamed i.e.; to sink into the floor and disappear (Tangney et al., 2002).

Further, studies also examined the shame and guilt-related processes in terms of proneness or predisposition i.e.; the guilt-prone people tend to make internal, detailed, and unstable attributions when transgressions occur (Tangney et al., 2002), and they appear to be more able to sympathies with others and accept responsibility for unfavorable interpersonal situations. They are less likely to experience annoyance and other psychological issues than shame-prone. Furthermore, they are having emotions of remorse and desire to mend their behavior or transgressions with the assistance of an apology or sympathy behavior (Bybee & Quiles, 1998). In this way, remorse is counted as a subset of guilt, in which the individual realizes that they are responsible for causing harm to another person and accepts responsibility for their actions. On the other hand, those who are prone to shame appear to have a greater propensity to form internal, global, and stable attributions. They also tend to have a negative self-conception, which is associated with a reduction in depressive symptoms regardless of the situation. People who are more prone to shame have a tendency to be more likely to blame others (in addition to themselves) for unfavorable situations. In addition to this, they are significantly less capable of empathizing with other people and are more likely to engage in rumination and suppressed rage (Tangney et al., 2002). (See Figure; 1.2)

Figure 1.2*Social Emotion: Guilt, Shame and Remorse***1.15 Evocation of Guilt, Shame and Remorse Emotions**

Specifically, shame, guilt, and embarrassment have been the focus of a significant amount of research over the course of time (Keltner, 1995; Keltner & Anderson, 2000; Keltner & Buswell, 1996; Leary et al., 1996; Teroni & Deonna, 2008). These three emotions are grouped under the heading of social and moral emotions. The investigation of these emotions unavoidably leads to the question of how to differentiate between them, as well as what role each plays in the social life of human beings. It has been suggested that embarrassment is the first trace of the emergence of both the self and moral standards (Tracy & Robins, 2004). On the other hand, shame and guilt are considered to be more complex forms of self-conscious emotions, and as a result, they emerge later in the development process. Also, past studies highlight that shame and guilt manifest themselves till the end of the third year of life (Izard et al., 1999; Lewis, 1995a; 1995b) while embarrassment can appear as early as the second year of a person's life.

Because, the embarrassment is linked to interactions within hierarchical structures, since it is experienced more frequently when one is in the company of people with greater social rank than when one is in the company of persons with lower social standing. It is also related with the breach of a social convention (Keltner & Buswell, 1996), and it is believed to be a phylogenetic ally older and simpler version of shame, sometimes known as "proto shame" (Fessler, 1999; Keltner, 1995).

Conversely, researchers demonstrated that the feelings of shame and guilt share similar properties. These features are include as: (a) a strong correlation with one another; (b) a tendency to coexist (Ferguson & Crowley, 1997); and (c) a connection to a sense of violating social and moral norms (Miceli & Castelfranchi, 2018; Tangney & Tracy, 2012). Also, these two emotions appear to derive - from different psychological processes, with distinct elicitors & action tendencies when they are frequently confounded (Baumeister et al., 1994; Tangney, 1991). Thus, they elicit and distinguish themselves and can be explained with the assistance of the following statement's and instances, which will provide further clarification and awareness of the evocation and differences among the given emotions.

Suppose, I done something wrong. The focus is on two things: the person (who did it) as well as the activity (what has been done). Looking at the person, the statement relates to the self "I," which falls under the category of self-consciousness. The distinction between guilt and shame will be determined by the response to the following question: does this activity characterize who I am as a person? If the person answered "yes," it suggests the wrongdoing, I did is a part of who I am, the behavior makes me a bad person, and I am ashamed of it. This underlines the idea that shame is more painful than guilt because it indicates a flaw in the inner self; it appears to be associated with hierarchical interactions (Davidson et al., 2009).

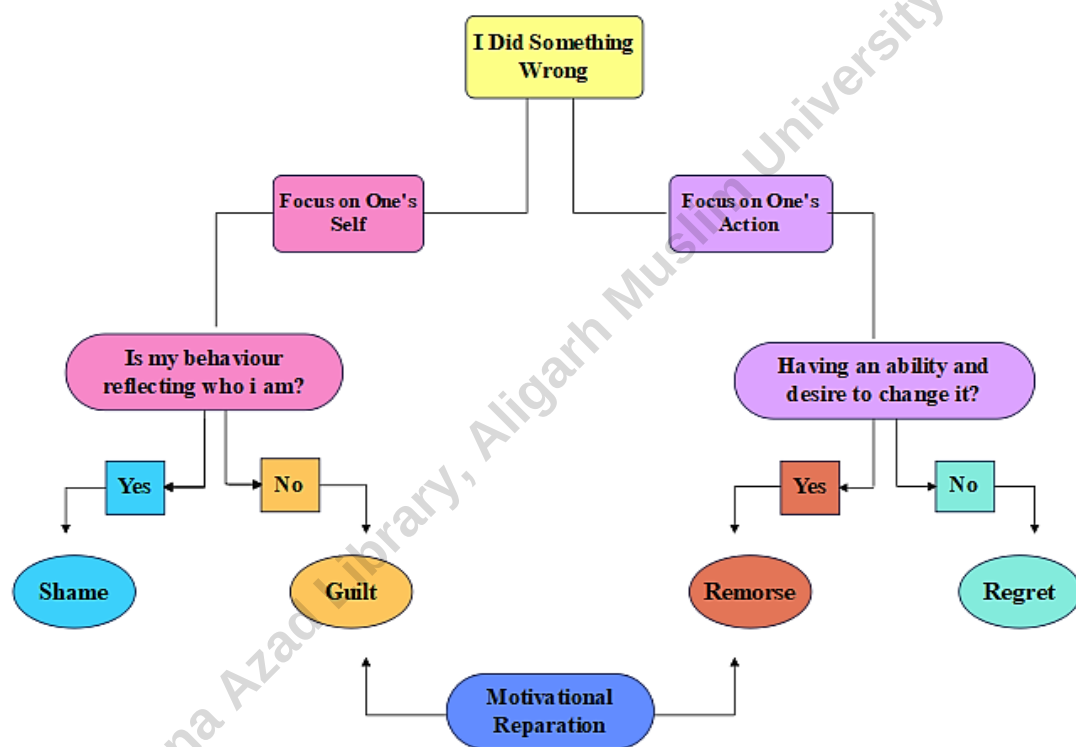
On the other way, If the person answer is "no" the behavior is isolated act that did not define I as a person rather related to action, and the person feel guilty about the wrong done. Furthermore, guilt feelings are more common in social situations (Davidson et al., 2009). It focuses on harm done to others rather than the repercussions for oneself, evaluating one's actions as wrong (Lewis, 1993). Guilt appears to reflect a negative moral self-evaluation in which someone's actions are responsible for the transgression and are frequently related with empathy and perspective-taking (Miceli & Castelfranchi, 2018). Shame, on the other hand, appears to be related with a negative non-moral self-evaluation in which accountability issues are ignored in favor of focusing on the disparity between one's ideal self and one's real self (Miceli & Castelfranchi, 2018).

In this way, when a person is ashamed, he or she will want to find a hole to hide in, retreating from any social situation (Lewis, 1993). Submissive behavior implies that the transgression has been acknowledged, which decreases the risk of

retaliation (Haidt, 2003). In comparison, when someone is guilty, they will want to right the error and make apologies (Haidt, 2003; Taylor, 1996). When I consider the action "something," a new inquiry emerges: do I wish I could change it? Regret arises when I feel horrible about what I did but have no desire to change it. However, if I feel bad and wish I could erase what I committed, guilt may transform into remorse. Both guilt and remorse are action-oriented, either pushing I to make reparations or believing I deserve to be punished (Taylor, 1996). (See Fig; 1.3)

Figure 1.3

Evocation of Guilt, Shame and Remorse Emotion



Therefore, when a person is confronted with the realization that they have done something wrong, their focus is typically either on the self (which is "I") or the action (which is "something"). Our conscience then directs us to consider whether the action defines who we are (guilt vs. shame) and whether or not we desire and could change what has just happened (remorse vs. regret).

1.16 Consequences Associated to Guilt, Shame and Remorse

Guilt and shame are social emotions that help people navigate successfully in social situations, i.e.; when an individual engages in compensatory interpersonal

behaviors after engaging in inappropriate or bad behavior in the real or imagined presence of others, the prototypical feelings of sorrow and regret motivate the individual to participate in compensatory interpersonal actions. However, when feelings of guilt and shame are triggered too quickly and frequently or stick on individuals mind for the long period of time the compensatory interpersonal actions may become overly dominating and begin to interfere with daily functioning. Therefore, it became harmful to the individuals life and give birth to numerous physical and psychological issues.

Studies has shown that high levels of guilt and shame are linked to numerous psychological problems such as aggression, depression , post-traumatic stress disorder, anxiety disorders, suicidal behavior, substance abuse (Bennett et al., 2005; Ferguson et al., 1999; Tangney et al., 1996) anger and obsessive-compulsiveness disorders (OCD) (Ferguson et al., 2000; Orth et al., 2006; Quiles & Bybee, 1997; Tangney et al., 1992) are shown among the guilt and shame individuals. Further, the relationship between guilt and psychopathology is stronger, especially when experienced obsessively, ruminatively, or in conjunction with feelings of shame and this is truer in the case of depression, which includes "inappropriate guilt" as one of the core symptoms identifying the condition. Furthermore, it has been suggested that extremely low levels of guilt can be hazardous since they can impede the development of empathy and conscience. Indeed, "lack of regret or guilt" has been persistently linked to aggressive and antisocial behavior and it is now being added as a specifies to the diagnostic criteria of conduct disorder, where it has been proven to predict a poor prognosis.

Further, shame and guilt can both be unpleasant or disagreeable emotional experiences. However, studies suggest that shame may be especially harmful because of its tight relationship with an individual's sense of self (Lewis, 1971). Indeed, shame is associated to a variety of psychiatric issues, including depression, psychosis, Post-Traumatic Stress Disorder (PTSD), and eating disorders (Blythin et al., 2020; Kim et al., 2011; Pugh et al., 2015). There is evidence in the existing studies that shame is more strongly related with psychological issues (Blythin et al., 2020; Kim et al., 2011; Pugh et al., 2015). Guilt, on the other hand, can be painful and can cause feelings of regret or remorse (Pugh et al., 2015; Tangney et al., 1996). While guilt may lead to reparative action to address perceived problematic behavior (Tangney & Dearing,

2002), shame responses are typically less adaptive and include rumination (Cheung et al., 2004), submission (Schoenleber & Berenbaum, 2012), and attempts to conceal oneself or one's perceived flaws (Tangney et al., 1996). Furthermore, shame indicates a stronger association with self-harm. Self-harm is defined as the intentional destruction or injury to one's own body tissue, regardless of suicidal intent, and can refer to a variety of behaviors such as overdosing, cutting, burning, and self-battery. On the other side, studies have shown that guilt is connected with OCD, anxiety, and depression. Sleep problems, digestion troubles and muscle tension are some of the physiological symptoms associated with guilt. Aside from being hypersensitive to the consequences of every action, overburdened bad decisions and low self-esteem are also typical in guilt. Furthermore, a person who is unable to feel guilt is frequently diagnosed with antisocial personality disorder, as defined by the DSM IV-TR. In general, in order to develop psychopathic tendencies, a person must be unable to feel fear or remorse.

1.17 Appraisal

Appraisal is the mental evaluation of a situation and influencing our emotional reactions and behavioral patterns based on individual perceptions and interpretations. Cognitions (thoughts, pictures, memories, and interpretations) play a central role in almost every element of emotion. Emotional responses are elicited by cognitive activities. Because, they are a part of our inner emotional experience and impact how we express and act our feelings. Depending on how individual appraise a situation and can elicit either pleasure or distress feelings. *For instance*, if a certain program is perceived wrong, it may inspire wrath, fear, shame, embarrassment, guilt or disgust rather than pleasure. Therefore, appraisals are the evaluations of situation or can be considered as sensory stimuli in which their meanings involve both conscious and unconscious mechanisms (Barrett et al., 2007).

People are generally ignorant of the appraisals, but appraisal serves as the foundation for emotional responses. Because, some appraisals appear to be little more than a nearly automatic assessment of sensory data based on previous conditioning (laydown at subliminal part) (Smith & Kirby, 2004). However, the strongest emotions are more likely to be formed instinctively at first, after which individual may examine the issue more rationally (totally based on levels) (Clore & Centerbar, 2004). Therefore, appraisal is an assessment in which a person first examines the event and

then interprets them in optimum level and finally showing reactions based on his overall evaluation. *For example*, sorrow experienced when a romantic relationship ends may be triggered by evaluations that something sought has been lost and cannot be restored (Roseman, 1984; Frijda, 1986; Oatley & Johnson-Laird, 1987; Scherer, 1993; Smith & Lazarus, 1993).

The definitions of appraisal are categories in the form of structure and process models in which Scherer and colleagues (2001) focus on the structure method of appraisal and highlight that the structure of appraisal processes may help to explain the experienced involuntary character of emotions. Similarly, Arnold (1960) defines appraisal as a sort of perception that implies evident restrictions on our ability to manage the process, i.e.; we may not be able to appraise the world in the same way that we see it (e.g., perceive a short person as tall) (Scherer et al., 2001). Further, the Roseman (1996) supported the Arnold and defines appraisal as a perception process "perception of the fate of motives", because most appraisal theories agree that events are assessed in connection to a person's objectives, needs, or concerns (Scherer et al., 2001). In this way, the emotion can be appraised on the basis of both structural and processes way.

1.18 Appraisals Sufficient Causes of Social Emotions Across-Cultures

The Appraisal theories of emotion propose that individuals experience different emotions in response to the same situation based on their interpretation or appraisal of that situation. According to this perspective, it is not the situation itself but rather how it is perceived and evaluated that influences the quality and intensity of emotional responses. Emotions are believed to be elicited by the appraisal of various dimensions of an event, such as its significance, predictability, attributions of responsibility, and perceived control over the event. Different versions of assumption can be found in almost all cognitive appraisal theories of emotion (Arnold, 1960; Ellsworth & Scherer, 2003; Lazarus, 1991; Ortony et al., 2022; Reisenzein, 2001; Scherer, 2001). However the two possible core versions are; the core idea is that when we perceive a situation differently such as seeing it as positive or negative, it can lead us to feel different emotions about it. This suggests that our interpretations, or appraisals, play a key role in shaping our emotional responses, even if everything else in the situation remains the same. The second version suggests that varied appraisal profiles are essential prerequisites for eliciting distinct emotional reactions to identical

situations. In simpler terms, it proposes that the same situation cannot evoke different emotions unless it is perceived or evaluated differently.

As a result, most existing studies differentiate between various appraisals by utilizing different situations. This approach makes it difficult to determine conclusively whether appraisals alone are capable of eliciting different emotional responses to the same situation. For instance, in the majority of studies exploring the connection between appraisal and emotion, participants are typically asked to recall autobiographical memories (as seen in studies by Reisenzein & Hofmann, 1993; Reisenzein & Spielhofer, 1994) or imagine hypothetical scenarios (as demonstrated in research by Ellsworth & Smith, 1988; Smith & Lazarus, 1993) that are associated with specific emotions. They are then prompted to evaluate these events across various dimensions of appraisal.

Further, by reviewing the individualistic and group cultural studies, previous researches highlighted that the western cultures are considered as individualistic cultures. Because there tendency to be a focus on the self as an independent entity that values autonomy, agency, and personal control. In contrast, collectivistic societies continue to highlight an interdependent self-construal that emphasizes relatedness, collective cohesion, and a sense of obligation towards one's group (Markus & Kitayama, 2010). Therefore, it has been truly proposed that the cultural variations play an active role by determining the emotions of people based on how people appraise situations.

The cross-cultural researchers invited participants from different nations to recollect incidents that elicited specific emotions and to respond to questions about how they assessed the occurrences. People showed considerable cross-cultural parallels in the types of assessments that aroused joy, fear, anger, sadness, disgust, humiliation, and guilt in one study conducted in 27 nations (Wallbott & Scherer, 1988). Regardless of culture, if any of these feelings happened, similar appraisals were engaged. Despite these cross-cultural evaluation similarities, different events might elicit various appraisals and emotional reactions depending on one's own culture (Mesquita & Markus, 2005). *For example*, a group of American researchers conduct a study on 6 ethnic groups and the study entitled “*meaning of situation being alone*”. *Tahitians (a French Polynesian ethnic group)* response of being alone as an opportunity for evil spirits to harass them, and fear is the most typical emotional

response. While being alone interpretation of *Utkuhikhalik* (simply Utku) (*another ethnic group and its settlement of the Central Canadian Arctic*), and *Eskimo society* (*ethnic group steeled in northern and south western Alaska in the United States*), represents social rejection and isolation, producing melancholy and loneliness. Further, the being alone can be a welcome relief from the hectic pace of daily life and eliciting serenity and happiness in *Western societies*, (Mesquita et al.,1997). Thus, when it comes to assessments, they appear to be certain universals but also some cultural variability in the more complicated parts of perceiving events.

1.19 Models of Appraisal

1.19.1 Structural Model

The appraisal structural model attempts to understand the relationship between appraisals or evaluations and the emotions they generate. Further, the models examine the different evaluation structure as well as how these appraisals determine the numerous emotions. According to the Lazarus (1991) the theoretical explanations of the appraisal emotion mainly based on *relational*, *motivational*, and *cognitive components*.

1. The *relational aspect* focuses on how a person and their environment interact, and it indicates that emotions are always the result of this interaction (Lazarus, 1991)
2. The *motivational aspect* is the component of the assessment of a situation in which a person decides how meaningful the situation is to his or her aspirations or goals (Lazarus, 1991).
3. The *cognitive component* involves a person's assessment of the circumstance or evaluation of the situation's relevance and significance to one's life (Lazarus, 1991).

Further, Lazarus emphasises that the distinct emotions are evoked when situations are judged differently based on these three categories. However, in order to analyses each emotion independently, a structural model of appraisal is required (Lazarus, 1991). The distinct components of the appraisal process for each emotion can be determined using this model. Furthermore, this model enables study of where and how the appraisal processes vary for distinct emotions (Lazarus, 1991). The appraisal process is divided into two stages: primary appraisal and secondary appraisal

(Lazarus, 1991). *Primary evaluation* is focused with assessing the (possible) harmfulness of a certain scenario and *Secondary evaluation* focuses on determining whether the individual holds the resources necessary to successfully meet the situation's demands.

1.19.2 Process Model

With respect to the structural model, later on the cognitive psychologists introduced the process model of appraisal for the better understanding of the complex emotion. The process approach was a cyclical process that progresses from appraisal to coping and finally reappraisal, seeking to represent a more long-term explanation of emotional reactions (Smith & Lazarus, 1990). However, there are certain limitations in the both type of appraisal models. Smith and Kirby (2000) intend two-process appraisal model that builds on the role of the structural appraisal model. Although the structural model of appraisal concentrates on what is evaluated, but on the other hand the process model of appraisal emphasizes on how emotional stimuli are being evaluated and shows their focus on three major components: *perceptual stimuli, associative processing, and reasoning*.

Perceptual stimuli are what an individual collects from his or her surroundings, such as pain or pleasure sensations or facial expression perception Smith and Kirby (2000). *Associative processing* is a memory-based mechanism that gives appraisal information depending on activated memories that are readily connected with the current stimuli (Marsella & Gratch, 2003). *Reasoning* is a more thoughtful, systematic, and complete process that entails logical, analytical reasoning about the stimuli and scenario (Marsella & Gratch, 2003). Associative processing and reasoning work in simultaneously in response to perceptual inputs in the two-process model of appraisal theory, offering a more comprehensive and cognitively grounded appraisal of the emotional experience (Smith & Kirby, 2000).

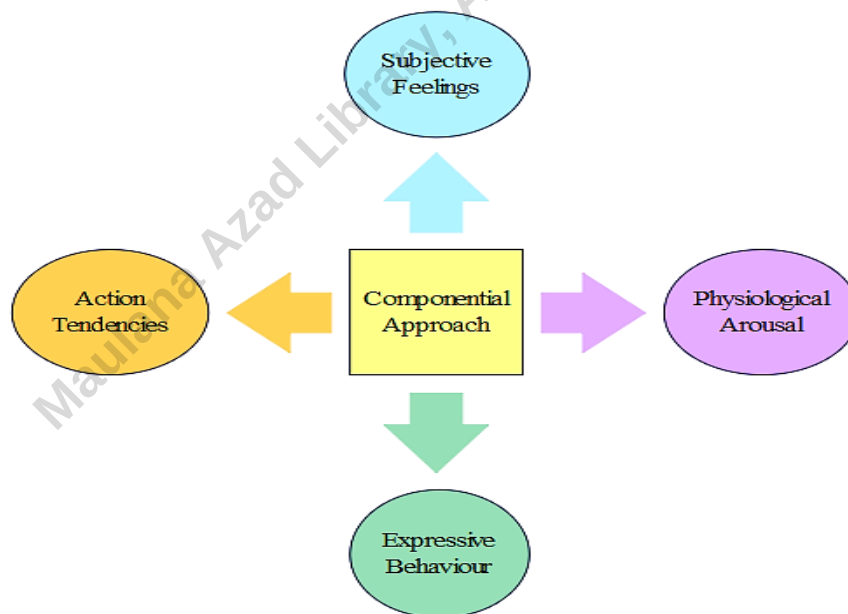
1.20 Current View of Appraisal

Numerous contemporary theories and models of emotion highlight the significance of the appraisal component in understanding and identifying emotional experiences. Conversely, the prevailing view among modern psychologists studying emotion is that it is a complex, multilayered phenomenon incorporating the following factors:

Subjective sensations; the appraisal is supplemented by positive or negative, pleasant or unpleasant, relaxed or excited feelings. *Physiological arousal*; Autonomic nerve system activity is associated with emotions. The definition of arousal is "to rouse or stimulate to action or physiological readiness for activity" (Andrew, 1974; Zou et al., 2022). We can have arousal without emotion, but not emotional without arousal, according to Schechter and Singer (1962), Humans who are injected with epinephrine despite knowing what the injection contains experience a rise in heart rate, perspiration, and anxiousness. However, this does not evoke an effective response. When the same physiological responses are combined with a situational pretext, such as winning the lottery or violation of moral values, the state of arousal is interpreted as intense excitement, joy, happiness, shame, guilt or remorse. *Expressive behaviors*; Changes in facial and bodily expressions, as well as posture and vocal shifts, are all effective ways to communicate emotion, and *Action tendencies*; Emotions convey behavioral intentions and the disposition to behave in specific ways. (See Fig; 1.4)

Figure: 1.4

Components of Componential Approach



As a result, the *componential approach* proposed by Roseman (1984), and Scherer (1984) Smith and Ellsworth(1985), Frijda (1986), share the assumption that (1) emotions are evoked by a cognitive evaluation of antecedent situations and events, and (2) the patterning of responses in different reaction contexts (physiology,

psychological, expression, action tendencies, and subjective feelings) is derived by the outcome of appraisal. Based on this approach, studies have shown that recent researches are highly focus on facial expressions as appraisal process indicators as compared to verbal report measures (Frijda & Tcherkassof, 1997; Kaiser & Scherer, 1998; Pope & Smith, 1994; Smith & Scott, 1997). This interest in facial expressions is related to the hypothesis proposed by Leventhal and Scherer (1987) that emotion-antecedent information processing can occur at distinct levels. This creates the idea that appraisal not only inculcated on the sensory-motor information processing levels but also involve at different schematic level that are vary difficulty accessible through verbalization but can be accessible through facial expressions (for more information on multi-level approaches (Reekum & Scherer, 1997). Thus, emotions are also evoked by subjective evaluations (appraisals) of situations and events according to appraisal theories of emotions (Roseman & Smith, 2001).

1.21 Empirical Studies on Guilt, Shame, Remorse and Appraisal

Yakeley (2018) summaries results about cultural influences on shame in relation to a variety of mental disorders. The findings indicate that there has been an exponential increase in interest in shame and mental problems in recent years. However, there is still a scarcity of research indicating a link between shame, mental health, and culture. But, while guilt and shame are frequently used similarly, there are undoubtedly variances in context and meaning between cultures.

Tracy and Matsumoto (2008) conduct research to determine whether recognition of nonverbal emotions of guilt and pride are biologically inherent behavioral responses to failure and achievement. They specifically perform the study on normal, blind, and congenitally blind subjects across cultures who spontaneously demonstrate pride and shame behavior's in reaction to the same success and failure conditions, i.e., win and defeat at the Olympics or Paralympics games. The findings revealed that blind, congenitally blind and sighted people from more than 30 countries performed the behaviors linked with the stereotypical pride expression in reaction to accomplishment. Individuals who were sighted, blind, or congenitally blind from most cultures likewise demonstrated shame-related behavior's in reaction to failure.

Pivetti et al. (2016) conducted a study of shame, anger, and guilt in order to investigate the behavioral, cognitive, and physiological correlations between them.

The study's sample included 124 Italian undergraduate students. The findings show that there are behavioral, cognitive, and physiological variations in shame, guilt, and anger emotion while elicitation.

Treeby et al. (2016) conducted the study to investigate the research on shame, guilt, and social cognition by analyzing correlations between shame and guilt-proneness and facial expression recognition ability. The study gathered data from 363 participants who completed assessments of shame and guilt-proneness and the facial emotion detection test task was used to recognize displays of happiness, disgust, anger, happiness, sadness, happiness, fear, and shame emotions. The results of the study suggest that guilt and empathy function synergistically to elucidate the inverse correlation between guilt-proneness and the inclination towards aggressive behavior.

Breugelmans et al. (2014) conduct a study to investigate the universality and cultural variations in regret, disappointment, and guilt experiences. The study contained 553 participants. The participants belonging from different universities such as 143 from Cornell University in the United States, 147 from Tilburg University in the Netherlands, 148 from Sapir College in Israel, and 115 from Soochow University in Taiwan. The participants were assigned at random to one of three emotion conditions- regret, disappointment and guilt. The target emotions were aroused through autobiographical memories and individuals reported personal experiences of regret, disappointment and guilt. By compared disappointment and guilt to each other, the study showed substantial evidence for the generality of the various emotion components of remorse and regret. The study also emphasizes cultural differences in the frequency and intensity of specific emotions.

Mohammadi and Vuilleumier (2020) emphasize the multi-dimensional approach to emotion identification and its impact on temperament. The researchers used a componential frame work model with a data-driven method to characterize emotional experiences elicited during movie watching. The modified version of the Differential Emotion Scale to evaluate 14 discrete emotions, including fear, anxiety, anger, shame, warmth, satisfaction, surprise, joy, sadness, love, contempt, guilt, disgust and calm. The study's sample consisted of native English speakers from the United States and the United Kingdom. Every activity was assessed to take 10 minutes on average and was rewarded with \$10 per task. The findings imply that differences in emotions can be recorded by a few (at least) latent dimensions and

linked with component processes such as appraisal, expression, physiology, motivation, and sentiment. The findings indicate that a componential model with a restricted number of descriptors can nonetheless predict the intensity of perceived discrete emotion's to a tolerable level, and that appraisals can vary depending on individual dispositions and biases. Furthermore, the study shows the association between personality traits and emotions through computational framework and demonstrates that the component model have better justify role in discrete emotion.

Klass (1987) the study created and tested a self-report measure of guilt that included a variety of typical guilt episodes. The Situational Guilt Scale (SGS) was developed using behavior-analytic methodologies and its 22 items rated anticipated guilt for a broad range of naturally occurring situational scenarios. Apart from the SGS, the measurement in conventional ethical contexts, depressive tendencies, and socially desirable responding was administered to young adult college students (average age = 24 years). Separately, a test-retest analysis of the SGS was done. The findings demonstrated that the internal consistency and stability of SGS scores were excellent. The validity of the measure is supported by correlational results and correlations of SGS scores in a classification of depressed experience, which revealed correlations between SGS guilt scores and dependent and self-critical tendencies.

Basile et al. (2011) conducted two concurrent experiments to see whether there is a distinct neurological basis for these two displays of guilt in healthy adults. They first conducted two behavioral investigations with 72 healthy volunteers to validate a set of stimuli that selectively evoked deontological and altruistic guilt basic control emotions (i.e., anger and sadness). Similar stimuli were used in an event-related functional magnetic resonance imaging (fMRI) paradigm to study the brain correlates of the same emotions in a new sample of 22 healthy volunteers. They found that when compared to anger and grief, guilty emotions engage distinct brain locations (cingulate gyrus and medial frontal cortex), and various neural networks are implicated in each type of guilt. This study gives evidence for the presence of unique brain circuits involved in various guilty feelings. This complicated emotion could explain both normal individual attitudes and abnormal social behaviors. Furthermore, aberrant processing of specific guilt sentiments may account for some psychopathological manifestations, such as obsessive-compulsive disorder and depression.

Chung and Robins (2015) conduct research on cultural differences in social emotion or self-conscious emotion identification. The study aims to investigate emotion detection of social emotions with evidence of nonverbal manifestations (i.e., shame, embarrassment and pride). Data is collected using the Davis Set of Emotion Expressions (UCDSEE) program. Eighty university students (22% women) ranging in age from 21 to 33 years (Mean = 25 years) were recruited for the study at Korea University in South Korea. Each participant received 5000 won, which is equivalent to \$4.50 USD. As a result, the data demonstrate that self-conscious emotion recognition exhibits mean recognition rates (averaged over posers) for emotion expressions of pride, embarrassment and shame, as well as the mean across these expressions. Pride had the highest recognition rate, followed by shame and embarrassment. As a result, the study reveals that the self-conscious feelings of shame, embarrassment and pride differ among cultures.

Yakeley (2018) carried out research on shame, culture, and mental health. The study's goal is to synthesis some of the current research on cultural impacts on the function of shame in mental disorders. Methods take a transcultural look at the notion of shame as well as its impact on psychological conditions. The study proposes that there has been an increasing concern about the role of shame in mental conditions in recent years, because previously little attention or research was happen. Further, the findings revealed that the guilt and shame are frequently used interchangeably among cultures. Thus, addressing patients' feelings of shame is a crucial aspect of culturally competent mental health treatment.

Gilbert and Procter (2006) investigated compassionate mind training (CMT) for those who experience a lot of shame and self-criticism. The researchers emphasize the relevance of evaluating different types of affect systems (activating versus calming) and the theory and therapy process of CMT. The study was conducted on six patients at a cognitive-behavioral-based day center for chronic problems related to shame and self-criticism. Significant reductions in melancholy, anxiety, self-criticism, shame, inferiority, and submissive behavior were observed. There was also a considerable improvement in participants' ability to soothe them and focus on sensations of warmth and reassurance for themselves. Compassionate mind training could be beneficial for some individuals with persistent issues, particularly those from traumatic histories who may lack a feeling of inner warming or self-soothing talents.

Hastings et al. (2008) investigated the relationship between psychopathy and emotion recognition in facial expressions. The sample comprised of 145 male convicts from a big urban jail in Northern Virginia. The Hare Psychopathy Checklist was used as the study's instrument: The Screening Version took part in a face expression recognition challenge. Participants were given faces expressing one of five emotions (happy, sadness, guilt and shame) at one of two levels of intensity (100% or 60%). Psychopathy was adversely connected with total facial recognition of emotion, negative facial affect, and recognition of the less intense displays of affect, which was mostly consistent with expectations. However, a surprising negative association with identification of pleasant facial affect was identified and findings show that psychopathy is connected with a widespread of emotion recognition.

Hejmadi et al. (2000) intend to investigate the Hindu Indian emotion expression in evidence for appropriate recognition Indians and American. The current study differs from its predecessors in two ways- firstly, the movements depicted were old systematic treatments, and secondly, the most conspicuous feature of non-facial expressiveness was hand gesture. Participants from the United States included 48 undergraduate students from the University of Wisconsin's Introduction to Psychology class (22 males and 26 females), and participants from India included 47 Hindu Indians (24 males and 23 females) from Bhubaneswar in the eastern Indian the state of Orissa. The study finds that additional positive basic emotions than previously highlighted based on expressive criteria. Indians were much more correct than Americans in the free-response style for the three indigenous feelings, *lajya* (shame), tranquilly, and heroism.

Nelissen (2012) investigated guilt-induced self-punishment as an indication of remorse. The goal is to bridge the gap between ideas that portray guilt as either an adaptable social feeling required for the preservation of social relationships or as a maladaptive feeling that creates a plethora of negative self-directed behaviors. The study's 85 female undergraduate students were randomly assigned to the experimental settings and seated in individual cubicles. The experiment consisted of two tasks are; *a guilt-induction technique and a quiz to gather the dependent measure of self-punishment*. The study used to have a two (emotion: control vs. guilt)? Three (audience: no vs. general vs. target) between topics design. The findings imply that guilt-induced self-punishment can be a sign of regret directly at the victim of a

previous act and discovered that individuals were willing to subject themselves to more powerful electrical shocks. If they were in the presence of someone they felt bad about, but not when they were in the presence of someone they had never met before or when they were alone. This appears to show that self-punishment is a social signal and ought to be considered a functional component of guilt-induced conduct.

Spice et al. (2015) investigate Adolescent Offenders' Remorse, Psychopathology, and Psychopathy. The study sought to address these concerns by investigating the links between remorse, psychopathology, and psychopathy in a sample of juvenile offenders (N=97) utilizing the theoretically and empirically proven framework of guilt and shame (Tangney & Dearing, 2002). The findings revealed that shame was associated to behavioral elements of psychopathy in a positive way, whereas guilt was related to psychopathic features in a negative way. Furthermore, shame was connected with a variety of mental health disorders, whereas guilt was associated with anger, despair, and anxiety. These findings lend factual credence to the hypothesis that psychopathy is defined by a lack of regret.

Tracy and Robins (2006) did research on appraisal antecedents of shame and guilt-support for a theoretical model. The research employed experimental and correlational approaches to evaluate predictions regarding the antecedents of shame and guilt drawn from an appraisal-based model of self-conscious or social emotions. The research confirms the hypothesized connections between appraisals and emotions. The results of the study showed that (a) when individuals made internal attributions about events, they were more likely to experience both shame and guilt; (b) a habitual tendency to attribute events externally was linked to a greater likelihood of experiencing shame; and (c) when individuals made internal attributions about failure that were stable and beyond their control, they were more likely to feel shame, whereas internal attributions about failure that were unstable and within their control were more likely to lead to feelings of guilt. The consistent findings across multiple investigations reinforce the robustness of these conclusions and lend support to the underlying concept.

Mauro et al. (1992) undertook a cross-cultural study on the role of appraisal in human emotions. The main focus was on how emotions differed among cultures on ten dimensions: pleasantness, anticipated effort, attention activity, control, coping ability, assurance, goal/need conduciveness, legitimacy, norm/self-compatibility, and

responsibility. The questionnaire method was used and individuals were asked to describe an emotional experience. Participants in the study were from four countries; Hong Kong (248), Japan (296), the People's Republic of China (162), and the United States (267). The researchers highlight 16 different emotions, including anger, shame, hope, guilt, surprise, intrigue, fear, happiness, sadness, pride, challenge, disdain, boredom, regret, frustration, and disgust. The findings indicate significant similarities and variances in appraisal dimensions across cultures. In addition, the study supports the scientific studies and their premises.

Dempsey (2017) presented two contrasting viewpoints on shame and guilt. The first approach, the social-adaptive viewpoint contends that guilt is an essentially constructive emotion while shame is a fundamentally destructive emotion. Those concerned in moral character building and psychopathology should attempt to raise a person's guilt-proneness and diminish a person's shame-proneness. Based on the functionalist stance, both guilt and shame can serve an individual adaptively maladaptive, based on the situational relevance, duration, intensity, and so on. The research undertaken supports both viewpoints; it critiques certain flaws with the TOSCA, the most extensively used guilt- and shame-proneness measure in social-adaptive research, and it addresses the discrepancies in results discovered when measuring guilt and shame at the situation (event) versus trait level. The conclusion reached is that, while there is widespread support for the functionalist approach across a broad range of state and trait guilt/shame research, the functionalist perspective lacks the quantity of data obtained by the social-adaptive perspective utilizing the TOSCA.

Tangney et al. (1996) conducted a study to determine whether shame, guilt, and embarrassment are distinct emotions. Researchers wanted to understand the similarities and distinctions between shame, guilt, and embarrassment in this study. By participating, 192 undergraduates at a large state university on the east coast of the United States gained credit toward a course requirement. Participants were initially requested to offer a thorough written account of a personal encounter with shame, guilt, or embarrassment. The question began the narrative section of the written inquiry consider a time when you felt guilty (shame, embarrassment). Try to remember as many information about the occurrence as possible. There were no definitions supplied for these feelings. The researcher's intention was to learn more

about shame, guilt, and embarrassment as they were experienced by the respondents without imposing any of our own a priori beliefs about the definitions of these terms. After completing this task, participants produced an account of an emotion phrase. Additional dialog boxes were provided, with space for written responses, to help respondents recapture vivid memories of the other emotion and complete the experience as adapted from protocols used by Shaver et al. (1992) and Tangey et al. (1996) (e.g., "Tell in detail what happened to cause you to emotions was randomized across participants, as was the order of the feel guilt [shame, embarrassment]". "What caused it?" Tell in as queries about one's own perceptions against those of others. Give as much detail as possible about how you felt and thought; what you said, if anything, and how you said it; and what physical indicators of social emotion you displayed, if any "etc.) The findings of the study proposed that shame, guilt and embarrassment are distinct emotions. Embarrassment was not a close relative of shame and guilt. Also, it is more like a distant relative and the variations between the three emotions differs on the basis of emotional intensity or severity of transgression.

Tong (2015) investigates the appraisal-based differentiation of thirteen positive (13) emotions. The research examined at how well appraisals identify happy feelings and how well they differentiate negative emotions. Amusement, awe, challenge, compassion, contentment, gratitude, hope, intrigue, joy, pride, relief, passionate love, and serenity were among the thirteen positive feelings studied. The study's two main goals are to determine how well appraisals distinguish between happy and negative feelings. Second, how do these assessments of good feelings differ? The secondary goals are to investigate cross-cultural differences in emotion evaluation connections and the perceived relevance of traditional assessments for pleasant emotions. The participants were chosen from Singapore National University (34) and America Michigan University (40) and all are female undergrads. Participants from Singapore and the United States recalled an encounter with each emotion and then evaluated their ratings of the experience. In generally, the appraisals correctly classified pleasant emotions at rates higher than chance and the appraisal-emotion connections were consistent with forecasts. Furthermore, participants rated the assessments as mostly relevant to their good emotion experiences and the appraisal-emotion correlations were mostly constant from across two countries.

Mumenthaler and Sander (2012) studied social appraisal and emotion recognition. Social appraisal suggests that how a person appraises and feels about an event is influenced by how others do. This study explored this hypothesis by having participants identify dynamic facial expressions of emotion (fear, happiness, or anger in Experiment 1 and fear, happiness, anger, or neutral in Experiment 2). In experiment 1, forty-six native French-speaking female students from the University of Geneva (Geneva, Switzerland) constructed synthetic dynamic emotive facial expressions using FACS Gen, software developed by the Swiss Center for Affective Sciences. The software manipulates expressions in three-dimensional faces with precise muscle parameters from the Facial Action Coding System. In experiment 2, thirty-eight (38) female subjects averaged 21 years old. Experiment 1 was without participants of French- speaking Geneva University students. Experiment 2 uses Experiment 1's stimuli. In Experiment 2, researchers highlighted the causality between contextual and core events with a new stimulus sequence. Both trials showed that social appraisal affects emotion recognition, unlike contextual information's. Both conditions had identical facial expressions, but contextual face gaze direction affected emotion recognition.

Cordaro et al. (2018) investigate the patterns of emotional expressions across 22 emotions and five cultures (Japan, Korea, China, India, and the United States). The researchers discovered that individuals' expressive behavior's for distinct emotions differed significantly, however the same evidence supports the notion that there universal characteristics of emotional expression. Culture and circumstances determine emotional expression. It will be essential for researchers to test their hypotheses on culturally distinct, non-globalized populations.

Happy et al. (2017) propose and construct a facial expression database encompassing the spontaneously facial expressions of both male and female Indian participants. The proposed study had 50 participants, and the database contains 428 video clips. The database's video clips are meticulously annotated by trained decoders, after which they are validated by the participants' self-reports of emotion and the stimuli employed. Finally, the study found that just a few respondents exhibited considerable articulation of sadness and surprise, while the majority of subjects displayed satisfaction and disgust without difficulty.

Fischer and Van Kleef (2010) contended that contemporary scientific researchers and concepts don't really adequately capture the study of emotion. Emotions, on the other hand, have a crucial influence in social phenomena that govern social life. Because they frequently interact and share a specific relationship with the subject, emotional stimulants or antecedents are dynamic and vary over time. Thus, social factors influence not only the intensity of emotional experiences and expressions, but also the character of social movement (e.g., moving towards, away, or against).

Treeby et al. (2016) conducted a study on shame, guilt, and facial reaction. The study highlights that shame and guilt are two closely related negative emotions that lead to a variety of self-regulating and driving behaviors. The sample of the study was collected from the La Trobe University Australia. The average age of participants is 27 years. The inclusion criteria are respondents had to be 18 years or older, speak English as a first language, have no neurological disorder or any severe traumatic brain injury. Short Self-Conscious Affect-3 testing was used. The scenario-based test assesses- shame, guilt, externalization, and detachment and presented 11 everyday negative events. The FERT in this investigation employed the Montreal Set of Facial Displays of Emotion stimuli and the popular stimulus set consisting of 144 photographs of men and women's expressive face emotions. Each actor portrays the six emotions at five different intensities ranging from 20% to 100%. The findings elucidate that there is relationship between guilt and violence.

Bhushan and Munshi (2021) used fractal dimension analysis to investigate the role of intensity of facial expression. Takehara and colleagues (2002) previously conducted the study; however, the researchers use a similar method while using two Indian image databases, IDBE and IAPD, to investigate the link between the geometric properties of facial expressions in relation to the intensity of expressions as well as the viewing angle. The Indian dataset of emotions consists of 36 coloured photographs of a male expresser, whereas the IAPD consists of 140 coloured images. The results reveal that facial expressions are identified regardless of viewing angle, with happiness and anger being recognized better than surprise and disgust.

Fisher and Exline (2006) carried out a study on self-forgiveness versus excusing. The study focuses on two questions: Are persons who profess to forgive themselves simply excusing their wrongdoing? Is it appropriate for people to be distressed after hurting others? The study included 138 male and female volunteers from the

University of Ohio. The ethnic composition of the participant sample is as follows- 65% Caucasian, 27% Asian or Pacific Islander, 5% African American or Black, 1% Latino or Hispanic, and 2% other. The questionnaire was employed for measurement and the respondents were asked to recollect an autobiographical circumstance in which they perpetrated a very serious offence against another person. Previous research has linked feelings of self-condemnation to maladjustment. Participants reported deeper prosaic emotions (repentance and a sensation of being humbled) if they took responsibility, felt sorrow, and discovered that suppressing negative feelings required work. Egotism was connected with an unwillingness to accept responsibility, whereas the more shame-prone, neurotic style was associated with self-condemnation.

Giner-Sorolla and Espinosa (2011) suggested a conceptual structure for self-critical moral emotions such as guilt and shame, as well as other-critical emotions such as wrath and disgust. In this perspective, guilt is associated with anger, whereas shame is associated with disgust. The study included two experiments, one in the United Kingdom involving 86 psychology undergraduate students (67 female and 19 male) recruited at a large university in the southeast of England, and the other in Spain involving 70 voluntary undergraduate respondents (44 female and 26 male) from a university in the Galicia region. In which they were shown photographs of angry or disgusted faces. Participants rated the extent to which these faces would cause them to feel guilty or ashamed in a casual social meeting, and they completed questions regarding emotional expression inferences. The findings in both experiments revealed that angry expressions were associated with more guilt and less shame than disgusted ones.

Ho et al. (2004) investigate guilt, shame, and embarrassment using Revelations of Face and Self. The study's major goal is to discover how people from various cultures perceive guilt, shame, and embarrassment. The qualitative method is used to obtain data from the Chinese and Japanese populations. The researchers found shame and embarrassment as two key cultural variances of guilt. Action orientation, intensity, and extensity characteristics based on language representation.

Menétrey et al. (2022) investigated emotion recognition in a multidimensional framework and the function of physiology. The study's purpose was to examine the association between physiological parameters and theoretically specified components, as well as to see whether discrete emotions could be anticipated based on

multicomponent response patterns. The study's sample consisted of 20 French-speaking, right-handed students (9 women, 11 men) aged 19 to 25. They all stated and had no history of neurological or mental disorders, provided signed informed consent following a thorough explanation of the study, and were compensated. The physiological measurements were taken at the same time as the initial viewing of movie clips. During a subsequent presentation, participants were asked to complete a detailed questionnaire containing key descriptive terms of emotion-eliciting episodes derived from the componential model (i.e., Core GRID items) that evaluate several aspects of appraisal, motivation, expression, physiology, and feeling experiences. The results indicate that physiological features are encoded into each component, supporting the idea of synchronized recruitment during an emotion episode, using a data-driven computational technique based on multivariate pattern classification. While emotion prediction was improved when classifiers were developed with all five components, a model omitting physiological features did not significantly degrade performance. As a result, the data corroborate the concept of emotion as a multicomponent process.

Smith and Lazarus (1993) investigate the study of Appraisal Components, Core Relational Themes, and Emotions. Using a two-stage directed imagery exercise, this study investigates the contributions of specific appraisals to the experience of 4 emotions (anger, guilt, fear/anxiety, and sorrow) at both the molecular (appraisal components) and molar (core relational motifs) levels of analysis. In Stage I, individuals imagined themselves in situations designed to elicit appraisals that were either angry or sad. The scenarios developed in time Stage II to provide a second manipulation meant to systematically elicit the assessments hypothesized to cause each of the 4 emotions being study. The findings offered considerable support for the appraisal-emotion correlations for anger, guilt, and fear/anxiety that had been hypothesized.

1.22 Aim Overview

1.22.1 Aim 1

Explore the situations that generate the social emotions of guilt, shame and remorse.

Studying social emotions like guilt, shame, and remorse is a complex and most fascinating area. Because these emotions have been restricted and little empirical

work has been done, apart from Scherer's work on subjective evaluations of the events (Wallbott & Scherer, 1989). In the way the current study aim is to explore the social emotions of shame, guilt and remorse and add some value in human kind. Because, social emotions play a crucial role in shaping how we interact with others. Therefore, figuring out what situations lead the emotions of guilt, shame and remorse is not just a psychological quest but exploration of these emotions can help building healthier relationships, encouraging ethical behavior, and helping individuals and society grow.

Guilt is seen as a moral emotion, triggered when someone feels they've gone against their moral standards (Taylor, 1988). It acts like an internal guide, pushing people to behave in ways that align with societal norms (Lewis, 1971). Researcher exploring guilt situations aim to understand how moral thinking works and what drives people toward morally responsible actions. Similarly, the shame closely linked to guilt, is different because it focuses on the person rather than the behavior (Ausubel's, 1995; DeRivera, 1977; Lynd, 1958; Taylor, 1988). It arises from a feeling of personal inadequacy or thinking that one is fundamentally imperfect. Understanding the situations that bring about shame helps to grasp how individuals form their self-identity and how societal expectations affect their sense of self-worth. This knowledge can be used to reduce unnecessary shame, build resilience, and promote a more compassionate society. Finally, the remorse involves deep regret for one's actions and a genuine desire to make amends (Lindsay-Hartz, 1984). Identifying the situations that cause remorse gives us insights into how people reflect on their morals and what motivates them to make things right. Understanding these triggers can help in personal growth, forgiveness, and resolving conflicts. Therefore, exploring the situations of remorse has practical implications in fields like psychology, counseling, education and law etc. Because, it helps clinicians guide individuals through these emotions for healing and growth.

Further, this exploration will also help for interventions promoting positive behavior and preventing negative emotions from turning destructive. By identifying key situations of shame, guilt and remorse the educators, policymakers, and mental health professionals can design interventions to encourage empathy, ethical decision-making, and conflict resolution skills. Therefore, the *aim* of the study is to identify the situations that lead to social emotions of guilt, shame, and remorse is a multifaceted goal. It helps us understand moral thinking, the interplay of individual and societal

factors, and offers practical insights for therapy, and education. Ultimately, it contributes to build a more compassionate and morally conscious society and culture where individuals can navigate their emotions and relationships more effectively and also get relief from numerous psychological concerns related to these social emotions like anxiety, depression, stress, aggression, frustration, suicide, OCD and violence issues (Brown, 2007; Tracy et al., 2013).

1.22.2 Aim 2

Evaluate the emotional experiences of guilt, shame and remorse with the levels of appraisal.

The aim of evaluating the emotional experiences of guilt, shame, and remorse with the levels of appraisal is to gain a deeper understanding of the intricate interplay between these complex emotions and the cognitive processes that shape them. The central tenet of appraisal claims that emotions are elicited and differentiated on the basis of personal significance of a situation and criteria. In this way, the nature of appraisal approach is proposed on the basis of criteria, attributions, themes and semantic purpose of the situation. Therefore, the self-report strategy are most frequently used, the approach consists of asking subjects to recall specific emotional experiences and questioning them about the outcome of antecedent evaluation processes (Ellsworth & Smith, 1988; Scherer, 1997). So that examining different dimensions of mankind.

Therefore, examining bodily symptoms allows us to see how the body physically reacts to emotions like guilt, shame, and remorse. This might include changes in heart rate, muscle tension, or even facial expressions. By studying physical responses, we gain insights into the automatic reactions that accompany these emotions, helping us recognize common patterns and variations among individuals. Further, expressive reactions are like the external signals people give off when experiencing guilt, shame, or remorse. This could be seen in body language, facial expressions, or gestures (Lazarus, 1991). Also, understanding non-verbal cues helps us decipher how individuals communicate their feelings without relying on spoken words, providing a more complete picture of the emotional experience. Similarly, the verbal reactions involve the words people use to express their social emotions. Lastly, exploring psychological consequences delves into the lasting impact of guilt, shame,

and remorse on a person's mental well-being (Frijda, 1993; Nisbett & Wilson, 1977; Parkison, 1997; Parkison & Manstead, 1992). This involves studying surviving mechanisms, changes in self-esteem, and shifts in behavior over time. Understanding the psychological repercussion enables the identification of factors contributing to resilience or vulnerability, informing the development of targeted interventions and support strategies. Therefore, the aim is to evaluating bodily symptoms, expressive reactions, verbal responses, and psychological consequences of guilt, shame, and remorse, while considering levels of appraisal to create a comprehensive understanding of these intricate emotions. This knowledge can be valuable in tailoring therapeutic approaches, fostering empathy, and developing interventions that promote emotional well-being and resilience in diverse individuals and contexts.

1.23 Rational of the Study

After reviewing the existing literature, it becomes evident that social emotions have received relatively little attention in scholarly discourse. Contemporary theorists sporadically recognize situational influences on social emotions however limited empirical research has been seen undertaken in the realm of these emotions. It might be due to the substantial cultural and linguistic diversity particularly in sub-continental regions has contributed and diminishing focuses on guilt, shame and remorse emotions. Also, the considerable haze and misinformation and awareness of social emotions become another fact and finally the inadequate descriptions of tools for understanding these social emotions continue to impede progress in the field. These explanations are further expanded and clarified, as outlined below.

Base on Empirical research of social emotions particularly within the subcontinent region, remains notably sparse. Over the past two decades, only a handful of studies have been documented and accessible through platforms such as Google Scholar, PubMed, and Research Gate. Apart from that, previous research has predominantly adopted a *comparative approach* contrasting social emotions between continental vs. sub-continental groups. However, there is still a vast terrain left unexplored within the realm of social emotions in this subcontinent region and demanding further investigation and analysis.

Based on clinical observations, it's clear that shame, regret, guilt, and disappointment are integral to understanding various psychological challenges such as

depression (Hamilton, 1982), chronic OCD issues (Lange & Jakubowski, 1976), and eating disorders (Fairburn, 1984). Consequently, this study aims to explore the physiological and psychological differences that arise during experiences of shame, guilt, and remorse, aiming to provide valuable insights corroborating clinical findings and observations.

From a descriptive perspective, there is a critical need to comprehensively assess a wide spectrum of social emotions. The current self-report measures, such as the Forced-Choice Guilt Inventory (FCGI) (Martin, 2012; Mosher, 1966; 1968), have limitations as they narrowly focus on moral domains like morality-conscience, hostility, and sexuality. Similarly, the Perceived Guilt Index (PGI) (Otterbacher & Munz, 1973; Taušová, 2019) lacks situational references altogether. Hence, this study highlights the significance of scrutinizing the credibility and dependability of current assessment tools utilized in research endeavors. The study fill the existing gap in understanding social emotions, with a specific emphasis on the emotional encounters of guilt, shame, and remorse, particularly in relation to appraisal levels (Wallbott & Scherer, 1988).

Based on the existing observations, it seems that social emotions appear to be in at infancy stage. So, it's an exceptionally prevailing opportunity for investigating and explored social emotions particularly guilt, shame and remorse by the appraisal levels. Because, these emotions are having powerful relevance on individual's life.

1.24 Aim 1: Research Questions

1. What are the situations that generate the social emotions of guilt, shame and remorse?
2. What are the common situations altogether that generate the social emotions of guilt, shame and remorse?

1.25 Aim 2: Research Objectives

1. To explore the distribution of guilt in subjective feelings of state by the levels of appraisal.
2. To study the guilt emotion experiences with the levels of appraisal.
3. To explore the distribution of shame in subjective feelings of state by the levels of appraisal.
4. To study the shame emotion experiences with the levels of appraisal.
5. To explore the distribution of remorse in subjective feelings of state by the levels of appraisal.
6. To study the remorse emotion experiences with the levels of appraisal.
7. To see the difference in guilt, shame and remorse experiences between the participants of Jammu and Kashmir and Uttar Pradesh.
8. To see the difference in guilt, shame and remorse experiences between the male and female participants of Jammu & Kashmir and Uttar Pradesh.

1.26 Hypothesis

- H₁ : There will be independence in cell frequencies for guilt subjective feelings of state by levels of appraisal.
- H₂ : There will be difference among guilt emotion experiences with the levels of appraisal.
- H₃ : There will be independence in cell frequencies for shame subjective feelings of state by levels of appraisal.
- H₄ : There will be difference among shame emotion experiences with the levels of appraisal.
- H₅ : There will be independence in cell frequencies for remorse subjective feelings of state by levels of appraisal.
- H₆ : There will be difference among remorse emotion experiences with the levels of appraisal.
- H₇ : There will be the difference in guilt, shame and remorse experiences between the participants of Jammu & Kashmir and Uttar Pradesh.
- H₈ : There will be the difference in guilt, shame and remorse experiences between the male and female participants of Jammu & Kashmir and Uttar Pradesh.

1.27 Conceptual Frame work

Figure 1.5

Situations and Emotional Experiences of Guilt, Shame and Remorse With the Levels of Appraisal

